

FedSA-Drift: Structure- and Drift-Aware Federated Vision Transformers for Multimodal Skin Lesion Classification

Apurba Koirala¹, Rajeshkannan Regunathan^{1,*} and RA K Saravanaguru¹

¹*School of Computer Science and Engineering, Vellore Institute of Technology, Vellore, Tamil Nadu, India*

Correspondence*:

Rajeshkannan Regunathan
rajeshkannan.r@vit.ac.in

2 ABSTRACT

3 Federated learning allows healthcare institutions to train shared machine learning models on
4 patient records without exchanging raw data, supporting compliance with privacy regulations
5 such as GDPR and HIPAA. Heterogeneity across institutions, however, induces client drift,
6 unstable convergence and unfair per-client performance, and these effects intensify when
7 structured clinical metadata is fused with high-capacity Vision Transformers. This paper
8 proposes FedSA-Drift (Structure- and Drift-Aware Federated Learning) for multimodal skin
9 lesion classification. A SwinV2-Base backbone fused with a metadata branch is separated
10 into three parameter groups—early vision layers, deeper Transformer layers, and client-specific
11 multimodal heads—each aggregated by a different rule: standard FedAvg, drift-aware inverse-
12 distance weighting, and no aggregation, respectively. All correction occurs at the server
13 during aggregation: no penalty term is added to any local objective and no regularisation
14 hyperparameter is introduced. Our central result is obtained on the held-out ISIC 2019 test
15 collection under severe heterogeneity ($\alpha = 0.1$, $K = 5$), where one client holds no samples for
16 four of the eight classes. There, standard FedAvg attains the highest mean per-client accuracy
17 (0.4702) yet abandons four of the eight diagnostic classes outright, recording *zero* melanoma
18 recall for every client—including the institution holding 3815 of the federation's 3844 melanoma
19 cases (0/1327, 95% Wilson interval [0.000, 0.003])—because size-weighted aggregation is
20 dominated by a client that holds none. Structure-aware decomposition restores all eight classes
21 at a cost of 15.9 percentage points of mean accuracy, and drift-aware weighting recovers
22 11.5 of those points while raising the worst-client floor by 21.5 points and reducing the inter-
23 client standard deviation of accuracy by 67%. At the melanoma-holding client, recall rises
24 from 0.000 to 0.573 with the decomposition and to 0.727 with drift weighting, across three
25 disjoint confidence intervals. Balanced accuracy separates these very different clinical profiles
26 by roughly one point (0.3778 against 0.3681): aggregate metrics do not reveal complete class
27 abandonment. At the milder settings, worst-client accuracy rises from 0.4800 to 0.5705 at
28 $\alpha = 0.5$ with a 39% reduction in inter-client standard deviation. These proof-of-concept results,
29 spanning three federated configurations on a single dataset, suggest improved class coverage,
30 stability and fairness.

1 **Keywords:** client drift, federated learning, heterogeneous data, medical image analysis, multimodal learning, non-IID data, skin lesion
2 classification, Vision Transformer

1 INTRODUCTION

3 Melanoma is responsible for a disproportionate number of deaths from skin cancer. It is one of the most
4 common cancers in the world (Arnold et al., 2022; Hay et al., 2014). To improve patient outcomes, early
5 and accurate diagnosis is a must. Automated classification of skin lesions using dermoscopic images has
6 greatly improved recently. Much of this improvement has been accomplished through deep learning and
7 large-scale vision models such as Vision Transformers (Aguirre et al., 2024).

8 However, most highly effective models currently rely upon centralized environments where the model
9 is created by pooling all of the data into one single repository. This assumption rarely applies to clinical
10 environments, since due to extremely strict privacy laws and institutional policies, medical data is complex
11 to share across hospitals. The CCPA and the GDPR both limit the direct ability to share the raw data
12 collected by hospitals. Therefore, the laws that restrict the sending of data make multi-institutional
13 collaborations for various medical purposes legally and ethically complex (Voigt and Von dem Bussche,
14 2017; Law, 2023).

15 Federated learning (FL) is an alternative to this issue. Institutions can share model parameters with
16 each other, but not their raw data. This allows multiple institutions to collaborate without sacrificing
17 patient privacy (McMahan et al., 2017; Rieke et al., 2020). Nevertheless, FL has one major challenge in
18 the medical realm: there is heterogeneity in the data from different hospitals. Medical data in the real
19 world is not independently and identically distributed (that is, non-IID). All of the differences in patient
20 demographics, the number of patients with a certain disease, the imaging devices and device settings used
21 to image patients (metadata) all contribute to statistical heterogeneity in the datasets (Zhao et al., 2018; Li
22 et al., 2020).

23 The complexity of multimodal learning tasks compounds the challenge. Analysis of skin lesions, for
24 example, requires both imaging as well as clinical metadata which includes age, gender and anatomical
25 location (Nunnari et al., 2020; Gessert et al., 2020). When done in a centralized setting, patient metadata
26 typically increases diagnostic performance. Patient metadata contains information about the clinical
27 context that cannot be derived from visual features only (Gessert et al., 2020; Nunnari et al., 2020).

28 The aggregation of multimodal data creates additional challenge due to heterogeneity when utilizing
29 federated systems. Image distributions alone are already heterogeneous among various healthcare
30 institutions due to many differences between imaging devices and patient characteristics. When
31 considering the distribution of metadata, it is much more heterogeneous than image distributions. For
32 example, within a paediatric clinic, there may be significant representation of a constrained age range.
33 In a specialist centre or referral clinic, there may be substantial representation of only one or very few
34 anatomical sites. The manner in which sex and body location are recorded may also vary across electronic
35 health record systems. Thus, fusing two heterogeneous modalities and distributing them across clients
36 through a shared model only serves to further exacerbate instability. Therefore, client drift is exacerbated
37 in multimodal federated systems compared with those only containing imaging (Zhu et al., 2025).

38 The aggregation of all model parameters uniformly is not appropriate for multimodal architectures. The
39 visual backbone of a model and the metadata fusion component perform different tasks within a model,
40 and each modality may be subject to varying distributions among each of the clients. If these two different

modalities are aggregated in the same manner, the visual representation will be corrupted. Likewise, the metadata components will not be allowed to acclimate or adapt to local institutional characteristics (Zhu et al., 2025). Therefore, in order to build a stable and equitable multimodal federated system, client drift must be addressed and the structural differences between model components must be respected. Figure 1 illustrates this federated setup.

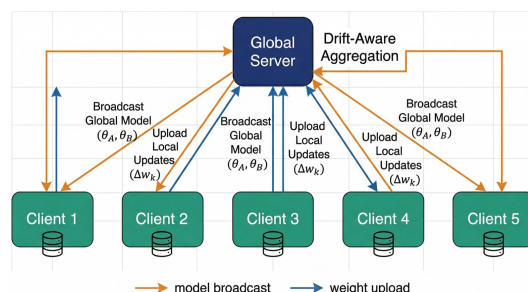


Figure 1. Overview of the federated learning setup with 5 clients. Each client trains locally on private data and uploads model updates to the global server. The server aggregates updates via drift-aware inverse-distance weighting and broadcasts the updated global model parameters back to all clients.

1.1 Existing Solutions and Limitations

Federated Averaging (FedAvg) is the de facto standard for federated optimization algorithms (McMahan et al., 2017). It averages the models from all clients weighted according to the size of the local dataset for each client. The FedAvg algorithm works well when local data distributions are similar to one another. However, when data is non-IID, the local models begin to drift; this means that the local models will converge toward different optimal points, resulting in a biased or unstable aggregate model (Karimireddy et al., 2020; Li et al., 2020).

Different methods have been proposed to address this problem. There are proximal regularization methods that introduce a penalty to any local update that deviates from the global model (Li et al., 2020). Alternatively, there are also methods that use control variates or partial personalization strategies (Karimireddy et al., 2020; Collins et al., 2021). However, using these additional methods typically requires the introduction of additional hyperparameters or a modification of the objectives that are normally employed to train local models.

For multimodal federated learning, the majority of approaches consider the model a single set of parameters. That is, all layers of all models are aggregated in the same way, regardless of the role of each layer. This does not take into account that the early feature extractors and the deep semantic layers will behave very differently under any change in distribution. As a result, uniform aggregation produces instability in shared representations and limits the ability of institutions to specialize (Zhu et al., 2025).

In addition to this, many researchers and practitioners tend to focus on global metrics such as overall accuracy or AUC. For clinical applications, however, global performance alone is not adequate. For example, a model that performs well on average, but fails at one institution, will create inequities and diminish trust (Darzi et al., 2024; Li et al., 2021).

1.2 Research Gap

There are still critical gaps that exist in federated medical learning despite past progress.

Sensitivity to layer-wise distributional heterogeneity: Compared to the earlier feature extraction layers, the performance of later deep Transformer model layers is more adversely impacted by distributional heterogeneity. Research on federated Vision Transformers indicates that if the multi-head attention remains misaligned across multiple client devices, the performance of the other clients will suffer due to feature collapse (Darzi et al., 2024). Studies evaluating partially personalized models show that uniformly aggregating shared model parameters negatively impacts the device drift experienced by clients (Zhu et al., 2025). Most current methods uniformly aggregate all shared model parameters while failing to take into account the different functional behaviours exhibited by the various layers of the model.

Multimodal personalization: Structured clinical metadata frequently varies greatly across hospitals (e.g., age, gender and body structure) (Nunnari et al., 2020). When using multimodal federated models, if the shared visual and the personalized components of the metadata are not kept separate from each other, the divergence of each will increase, thereby decreasing stability (Zhu et al., 2025). Most current methods do not appropriately enforce a separation between these two components.

Client-level stability under severe non-IID conditions: Individual clients may experience substantial drops in performance under conditions of severe non-IID distributional heterogeneity, even though the global metric remains satisfactory. Recent research on federated Vision Transformers shows that there is a critical requirement for the robustness of the worst client in order to stabilise client performance (Darzi et al., 2024; Zhao et al., 2025). The majority of current methods are primarily directed toward achieving a global objective and do not provide a mechanism for optimising worst-case client performance.

Moreover, many of the technical methods used to stabilise client performance impose extensive computation costs on client devices, while it is very important that efficiency be considered when developing practical applications for resource-limited environments (Wu et al., 2024). There is therefore a clear need for a federated method that stabilizes critical representation layers and improves fairness without complex local regularization.

1.3 Objectives

The objective of this research is to develop a federated multimodal skin lesion classification framework that incorporates the concept of data structure upon which it is designed. Additionally, the framework will be designed with the express intent of being resilient to the different forms of data distribution (heterogeneous data distributions).

This research will accomplish its objectives by developing:

- A method to decompose parameters that separates global visual representations from client-specific multimodal heads.
- An aggregation mechanism to address client divergence using available data from clients on the server-side.
- An examination of how the model behaves under IID versus non-IID conditions, as simulated using a Dirichlet distribution.
- A comparison between the performance of federated learning versus the maximum achievable performance of centralized learning.
- An evaluation of fairness in terms of worst-case client accuracy and the inter-client standard deviation of accuracy for all models.

1.4 Major Contributions

This paper makes four algorithmic and design contributions and three empirical ones. We separate them because two of the strongest results below are findings about evaluation rather than new machinery. The algorithmic contributions are:

- **Structure-Aware Parameter Decomposition:** Model parameters are decomposed in a manner that separates early backbone layers, deep Transformer layers, and client-specific multimodal heads. With this design, the server can selectively aggregate contributions from clients based on the functional role each parameter group plays.
- **Drift-Aware Inverse-Distance Aggregation:** The aggregation mechanism designed for the server-side reduces the overall contribution of outlier clients based on how far they have drifted from prior models. No changes to local training objectives need to be made, nor are any additional regularization hyperparameters required.
- **Fairness at the Client Level:** The results indicated that worst-performing clients benefited from drift-aware aggregation versus decomposition alone, while the overall variance between clients was significantly lower.
- **Low Computational Overhead:** The server-side cost of drift-aware aggregation is negligible relative to local training (Section 4.7.1), and clients are unmodified, storing no auxiliary state. We measured computational and communication cost only; we did not evaluate deployment, which would additionally involve network conditions, edge hardware and institutional integration.

The empirical contributions are:

- **Class Abandonment Under Severe Skew:** We show that standard FedAvg can drive recall on a clinically critical class to exactly zero under severe label skew while retaining competitive aggregate accuracy, and that this failure is invisible to overall and balanced accuracy alike. This argues for reporting per-class coverage as a first-class metric in federated medical imaging.
- **Component Decomposition Ablation:** A three-way comparison at $\alpha = 0.1$ —no decomposition, decomposition only, and full FedSA-Drift—separates the roles of the two mechanisms. The parameter decomposition is responsible for preserving class coverage, while drift-aware weighting is responsible for recovering utility and reducing client dispersion. Neither component is redundant and neither is sufficient alone.
- **Proof-of-Concept Heterogeneity Study:** The performance of FedSA-Drift was evaluated from near-IID through severely heterogeneous data distributions using three Dirichlet concentration parameters ($\alpha \in \{0.1, 0.5, 1.0\}$) and two client counts ($K \in \{3, 5\}$) on the ISIC 2019 dataset, with the severe setting additionally validated on a held-out test split. This constitutes an initial empirical characterization; evaluation at larger client counts is left to future work.

2 LITERATURE SURVEY

2.1 Survey of Existing Methods

2.1.1 Transformer-Based Vision Models

Automated classification of skin lesions has moved from CNN methods to Vision Transformers (ViTs) that leverage self-attention to capture long-range dependencies. ViTs outperform traditional CNN

methods, especially when the class distribution is imbalanced (Aguirre et al., 2024). Hybrid models are now the most common state-of-the-art methods due to their ability to combine local and global features. Strong attention-based fusion models combining ConvNeXt and ViT have produced state-of-the-art performance on ISIC datasets (Naeem et al., 2025). Multi-stream architectures using transformers can extract multi-scale patterns in dermatology (Alshdaifat et al., 2025). Other approaches include segmentation/classification fusion (Li et al., 2025), ensemble models that take into account metadata (Hasan and Rifat, 2024), and transformer ensembles that utilize uncertainty as part of the fusion process (Zoravar et al., 2024).

2.1.2 Skin Lesion Datasets and Benchmarking

ISIC 2019 and ISIC 2020 are recognized as the standard benchmarks for skin lesion classification because they provide a number of challenges, such as class imbalance, heterogeneous quality of the images, and the presence of out-of-distribution samples. The top-performing methods typically utilize multi-resolution architectures, extensive augmentation of the training data, and a loss function that balances the classes (Gessert et al., 2020). Additionally, incorporating structured demographic information into the classification process increases diagnostic performance (Nunnari et al., 2020). However, the presence of artifacts such as occlusions caused by hair or measurement markers makes the preprocessing of the data more complex (Wegley et al., 2026). Finally, the presence of demographic imbalances in the datasets implies that there may be issues with classification fairness or generalizability (Alipour et al., 2024).

2.1.3 Federated Learning in Medical Imaging

Federated Learning (FL) allows for private, cooperative training that meets the GDPR and HIPAA laws (Guan et al., 2024). Initial implementations used small convolutional neural networks that ran Federated Averaging to learn from multiple institutions (Subramanian et al., 2025). By utilizing communication-efficient techniques, such as asynchronous updates at the layer level, the amount of bandwidth required was significantly reduced (Yaqoob et al., 2023). However, there are still issues with data being non-independent and identically distributed (non-IID) between the various participating institutions, and class imbalance exists as well. Dynamic Adaptive Focal Loss is one method of correcting for class imbalance, but it also increases the computational burden and sensitivity to hyperparameters involved (Zhao et al., 2025).

2.1.4 Federated Vision Transformers

Federated settings with Vision Transformers create additional computation and communication challenges compared to Federated Convolutional Neural Networks, due in part to their architecture. Strategies to increase efficiency include masking patches during training (Wu et al., 2024) and pruning layers in the ViT architecture (Paxton et al., 2024). In addition to being adversely affected by non-IID data, feature collapse is also an issue with Federated ViT learning. Some alignment-based methods have been developed to ensure consistent representation of local and global attention (Darzi et al., 2024). Lastly, personalization and continual learning strategies are being investigated to improve the adaptability of the Federated ViT learning process (Zuo et al., 2024; Yao et al., 2024).

2.1.5 Explainability, Security and System Architectures

Concerns regarding the robustness, privacy, and interpretability of federated systems have been documented. One way to improve the stability of representations in a federated system is through self-ensembling (Almalik et al., 2022). Techniques for mitigating the effects of adversarial attacks include diffusion-based defenses (Imam et al., 2023). Privacy-preserving techniques, such as random projection, have been suggested as a way to improve communication security between federated clients and providers (Narimani et al., 2024). In multimodal systems, partial personalization leads to better adaptation at the local client; however, it increases the potential for client drift, and thus optimization-based corrections are required (Zhu et al., 2025).

2.2 Comparative Analysis

Standalone architectures have consistently been outperformed by hybrid CNN–Transformer models when used in centralized cases (Naeem et al., 2025; Alshdaifat et al., 2025). In federated environments, a trade-off exists between model consistency and computational resource efficiency. Alignment-based approaches result in improved model stability but come with a very high overhead cost. Efficiency-based methods reduce the amount of computational resources required to run the models, but at the expense of representational fidelity.

2.3 Relation to Personalized and Drift-Corrected Federated Learning

FedSA-Drift combines partial parameter personalization with adaptive server-side aggregation. Neither ingredient is new, and we do not claim otherwise. What follows states precisely what is and is not different from the established alternatives, since the combination is the contribution rather than either component.

Partial personalization. FedPer (Collins et al., 2021) and FedRep (Collins et al., 2021) keep a classification head local and share a representation; FedBABU trains the body with the head frozen and personalizes only at the end; FedBN keeps normalisation statistics local. FedSA-Drift's Group C is the same idea as FedPer's private head, extended to a multimodal head that also carries the metadata branch. The difference from all four is not the existence of a private head but that the *shared* portion is itself split, with early and deep layers aggregated by different rules—FedPer, FedRep, FedBABU and FedBN all apply one aggregation rule to everything they share.

Drift correction. FedProx adds a proximal term to the local objective; SCAFFOLD maintains per-client control variates that correct the local update direction; FedDyn adds a dynamic regulariser; FedNova normalises for unequal local step counts. All four act on the client. FedSA-Drift leaves the local objective and optimiser untouched and acts only on the aggregate. This is the practical distinction we emphasise: no additional hyperparameter is tuned, no auxiliary state of model size is stored per client, and clients require no modification. It is also a weaker form of correction, since the server cannot see the trajectory that produced a client's parameters.

What is genuinely new here is narrow. Applying depth-dependent aggregation rules within a Vision Transformer backbone—plain averaging for early layers, drift-weighted averaging for deep layers—together with a private multimodal head, is a configuration we have not found in the prior work. Our empirical finding about class abandonment is independent of that configuration and would apply to any comparison of aggregation schemes.

We have not measured against these methods. None of FedProx, SCAFFOLD, FedBN, FedRep, FedPer, FedBABU, FedNova or FedDyn was re-implemented under our conditions. Our comparisons are

to FedAvg, to the decomposition without drift weighting, and to a no-decomposition variant. We therefore cannot state whether the gains reported here would persist against a strong personalized baseline such as FedRep or FedBN, and we do not claim they would. Section 4.5.1 isolates the contribution of each of our own components, which is a different and narrower question than superiority over the personalized federated learning literature. Establishing the latter requires the comparison set above and is the primary item of future work.

2.4 Limitations in Prior Work

1. **Client Drift in Heterogeneous Settings:** The client drift phenomenon refers to a non-IID data distribution present in heterogeneous settings, which may cause instability in convergence and thus reduce global performance (Zhu et al., 2025).
2. **Destructive Efficiency Techniques:** Aggressive masking and/or pruning can cause disruption of the representation of hierarchical aspects of transformer models (Wu et al., 2024).
3. **Complex Loss Engineering:** Because of the introduction of adaptive loss functions, the number of hyperparameters has increased, which adds computational overhead in the form of extra computation (Zhao et al., 2025).
4. **Feature Collapse under Uniform Aggregation:** Due to the standard aggregation process used in federated learning, the diversity of hierarchical features will not be maintained under uniform aggregation (Darzi et al., 2024).

2.5 Mathematical and Computational Complexity Analysis

2.5.1 Formal Computational Complexity

The use of large Vision Transformer models in federated learning can require a lot of extra computational resources due to their size, especially when the device is an edge device (Wu et al., 2024). For a model with parameter size $|w|$, local training complexity scales as:

$$\mathcal{O}(E \cdot |w|), \quad (1)$$

where E is the number of local epochs. Optimization-based approaches further increase this cost due to additional penalty terms and dual-variable updates. Alignment-based methods also introduce overhead proportional to the attention dimensions, typically $\mathcal{O}(hd^2)$ (Darzi et al., 2024).

2.5.2 Communication Efficiency Considerations

Standard federated learning models transmit all the parameters of the model for every round of training, which results in a very high communication cost. Therefore, due to the full parameter transmission of large transformer models, communication costs are high as well. Compression and selective updates can help reduce bandwidth usage, but typically reduce the performance and representational capacity of the model.

Table 1. Comparison of hybrid and federated skin lesion classification methods and their limitations.

Author(s)	Model Framework	Key Innovation	Limitation
Naeem et al. (2025)	MedFusionNet	Attention-based fusion of ConvNeXt and ViT	Centralized architecture; does not address federated privacy constraints
Gessert et al. (2020)	Multi-Resolution EfficientNets	Ensemble with metadata fusion (ISIC 2019 winner)	Requires centralized metadata aggregation
Zhao et al. (2025)	FL with DAFL	Dynamic loss adaptation for class imbalance	Hyperparameter-sensitive; increased computational overhead
Wu et al. (2024)	EFTViT	Patch masking for efficient federated ViT training	Disrupts spatial and hierarchical representations
Darzi et al. (2024)	FedMHA	Attention alignment to mitigate feature collapse	Computationally expensive regularization
Zhu et al. (2025)	FedAPM	ADMM-based personalization to reduce drift	High optimization complexity
Yaqoob et al. (2023)	Async-FL-CNN	Asynchronous updates for communication efficiency	Limited to CNNs
Paxton et al. (2024)	Skewness-Guided Pruning	Model compression for edge deployment	Reduces model capacity
Narimani et al. (2024)	FedRP	Random projection for privacy preservation	Does not address data heterogeneity

3 METHODOLOGY

3.1 Methodology Overview

This part discusses how to create the FedSA-Drift training workflow step by step.

1. Set up the federated multimodal problem and notation.
2. Create heterogeneous client datasets with Dirichlet partitions.
3. Create a centralized upper bound baseline.
4. Decompose the parameters of the model into groups that preserve the structure of the data.
5. Train the model using local computation and then aggregate the results globally using drift-aware weighting.

Figure 2 shows the structure-aware federated aggregation architecture.

3.2 Problem Setup and System View

The goal of FedSA-Drift is to train a shared model across K clients without exchanging any raw data between clients. Each client holds their own local dataset:

$$\mathcal{D}_k = \{(x_i^k, m_i^k, y_i^k)\}_{i=1}^{n_k} \tag{2}$$

where x_i^k represents the i -th dermoscopic image, m_i^k represents the clinical metadata associated with that image in structured format, and $y_i^k \in \{1, \dots, C\}$ represents the label or class of the lesion in the image. The total number of samples across K clients is $N = \sum_{k=1}^K n_k$.

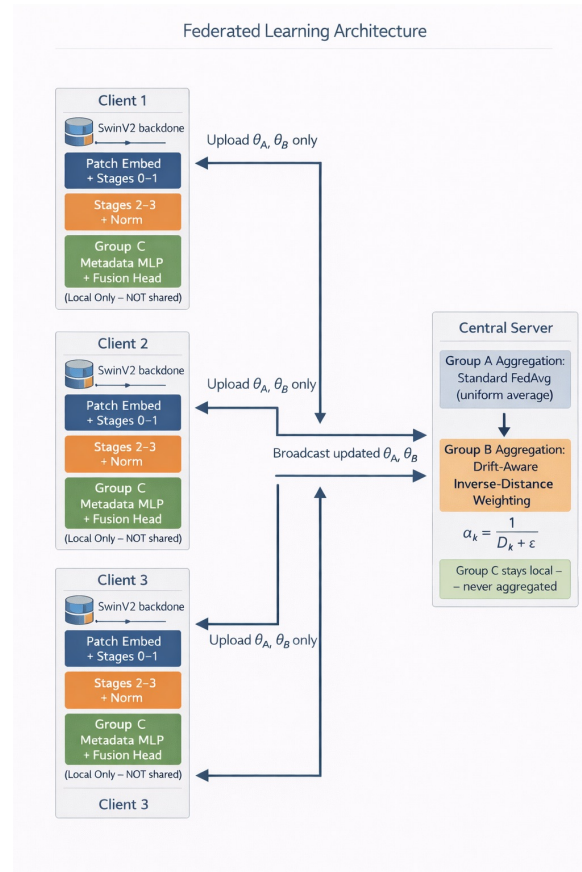


Figure 2. Structure-aware federated aggregation architecture.

- 1 The common goal is to develop a multimodal classifier defined as:

$$f_{\theta} : (x, m) \mapsto \hat{y} \quad (3)$$

- 2 where θ is the parameter vector of the model and $\hat{y}$ is the predicted classification label.

3 3.3 Step 1: Dirichlet Non-IID Data Partitioning

- 4 Each client's data is sampled from a Dirichlet prior to simulate the true heterogeneity that exists across
- 5 multiple clients:

$$\pi_k \sim \text{Dir}(\alpha) \quad (4)$$

- 6 where $\pi_k \in \Delta^{C-1}$ is the class-proportion vector for client k and $\alpha > 0$ is the concentration parameter. A
- 7 smaller value for α gives more skewed class distributions across clients, and a larger value provides more
- 8 uniform ones. We evaluate $\alpha \in \{1.0, 0.5, 0.1\}$. At $\alpha = 0.1$ the draw is degenerate in a way that matters
- 9 for the results: with $K = 5$ one client receives no samples whatsoever for four of the eight classes, two
- 10 more are missing three and two classes respectively, and that same largest client receives 53% of the
- 11 federation's data. A partition is accepted only if every client holds at least two classes and at least 100
- 12 samples; this admits the $\alpha = 0.1$ draw used here, whose per-client class counts are listed in Section 4.3.3.

- 13 The fraction of class- c samples at client k is:

$$p_{kc} = \frac{n_{kc}}{n_k} \quad (5)$$

1 The variance of these proportions across multiple clients is given by:

$$\text{Var}(p_{kc}) = \frac{\alpha(C\alpha - \alpha)}{(C\alpha)^2(C\alpha + 1)} \quad (6)$$

2 As $\alpha \rightarrow 0$, the variance increases, which represents the degree to which distributions across multiple
3 clients will diverge based on the value assigned to the alpha parameter, leading to client gradients
4 diverging:

$$\nabla F_k(\theta) \neq \nabla F_j(\theta), \quad k \neq j \quad (7)$$

5 This gradient misalignment is the core challenge in the federated learning scenario.

6 **3.4 Step 2: Centralized Training Baseline**

7 The data of all clients must be pooled together in order to create a reference upper bound:

$$\mathcal{D} = \bigcup_{k=1}^K \mathcal{D}_k \quad (8)$$

8 Empirical risk minimization (ERM) is used as the central target:

$$F(\theta) = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{k=1}^K \sum_{i=1}^{n_k} \ell(f_{\theta}(x_i^k, m_i^k), y_i^k) \quad (9)$$

9 where $\ell(\cdot, \cdot)$ is the per-sample cross-entropy loss. Written schematically as gradient descent, the update
10 dynamics are:

$$\theta^{t+1} = \theta^t - \eta \nabla F(\theta^t) \quad (10)$$

11 All reported experiments use AdamW rather than plain gradient descent; Equation (10) is written in this
12 form only to define the objective being descended.

13 where $\nabla F(\theta^t) = \frac{1}{N} \sum_k \sum_i \nabla \ell(f_{\theta}(x_i^k, m_i^k), y_i^k)$.

14 The model is trained for E epochs using AdamW with a cosine learning rate schedule:

$$\theta^E = \text{AdamW}(\theta^0, \mathcal{D}) \quad (11)$$

15 In a centralized context, there is no client drift and therefore no communication overhead. As such, the
16 performance of this model acts as a reference upper bound for all subsequent federated experiments.

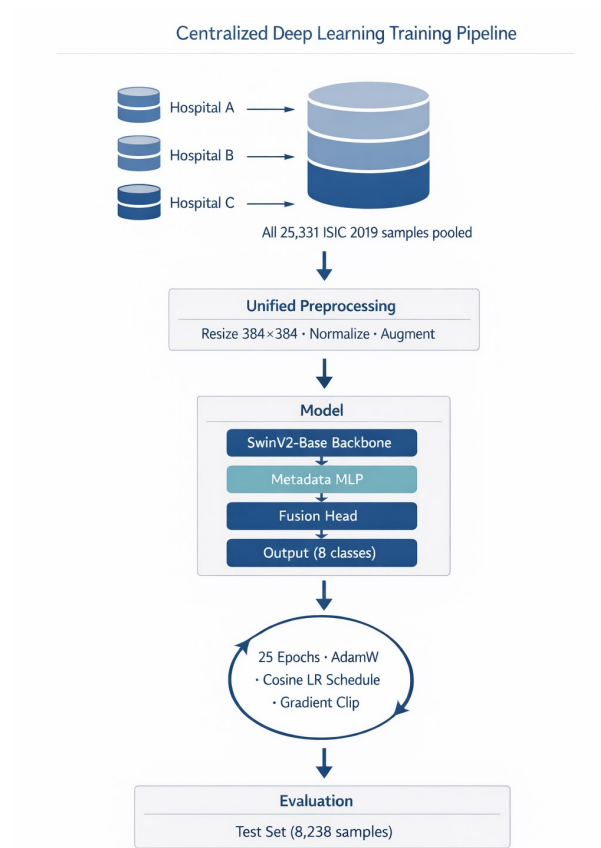


Figure 3. Centralized training pipeline using pooled multimodal data.

3.5 Step 3: Federated Optimization Objective

In federated learning, the global goal is the weighted average of all of the local objectives:

$$F(\theta) = \sum_{k=1}^K \frac{n_k}{N} F_k(\theta) \quad (12)$$

where $F_k(\theta)$ is the risk value for each client and is defined as:

$$F_k(\theta) = \frac{1}{n_k} \sum_{i=1}^{n_k} \ell(f_{\theta}(x_i^k, m_i^k), y_i^k) \quad (13)$$

The clients' local objectives combine into the global optimization objective:

$$\nabla F(\theta) = \sum_{k=1}^K \frac{n_k}{N} \nabla F_k(\theta) \quad (14)$$

When there are differences between the distributions of clients, this approximation becomes biased due to client drift.

3.6 Step 4: Structure-Aware Parameter Decomposition

To mitigate drift, FedSA-Drift assigns each parameter to one of three functional groups:

$$\theta = \{\theta_A, \theta_B, \theta_{C,k}\} \quad (15)$$

- **Group A** (θ_A) contains the patch embedding and early SwinV2 stages (0–1). These capture low-level visual features that generalize across institutions, and are aggregated by standard FedAvg.
- **Group B** (θ_B) contains the late SwinV2 stages (2–3) and layer normalization. These encode high-level semantics that are most sensitive to distribution shifts, and are aggregated with drift-aware weighting.
- **Group C** ($\theta_{C,k}$) contains the client-specific metadata MLP and fusion head. These are never transmitted to the server.

The predicted output for sample i at client k is:

$$\hat{y}_i^k = g_{\theta_{C,k}}(h_{\theta_A, \theta_B}(x_i^k), m_i^k) \quad (16)$$

where h_{θ_A, θ_B} is the shared SwinV2 backbone and $g_{\theta_{C,k}}$ is the local fusion head. As long as Group C is maintained locally, this enables the models to be personalized for each institution while still securing the confidentiality of the metadata.

3.7 Step 5: Local Client Optimization

Clients apply local training of the models via AdamW, where the backbone is trained at a 0.1η learning rate and the metadata MLP and fusion head use the η learning rate. In addition, a cosine schedule with linear warmup is used for all parameters in both groups. The update rule is:

$$\theta_k^{t+1} = \text{AdamW}(\theta^t, \nabla F_k(\theta^t), \eta) \quad (17)$$

For the structured (grouped) parameters:

$$\theta_{A,k}^{t+1} = \text{AdamW}(\theta_A^t, \nabla_{\theta_A} F_k, 0.1\eta) \quad (18)$$

$$\theta_{B,k}^{t+1} = \text{AdamW}(\theta_B^t, \nabla_{\theta_B} F_k, 0.1\eta) \quad (19)$$

where $\nabla_{\theta_A} F_k$ and $\nabla_{\theta_B} F_k$ are the partial gradients of local risk at the clients. These per-client updates diverge across institutions under non-IID conditions. It is for this reason that drift-aware aggregation is needed, as described in Section 3.8.

3.8 Step 6: Server-Side Drift-Aware Aggregation

Once local training is complete, the parameters for Groups A and B are uploaded to the server, where standard FedAvg is used to aggregate Group A and drift-aware weighting is used to de-emphasise updates from clients in Group B that deviate from the consensus. Furthermore, there are no changes to the local training objectives or the addition of hyperparameters.

3.8.1 Distance Computation

The server computes the mean across clients for every parameter tensor $l \in \theta_B$:

$$\bar{w}_l = \frac{1}{K} \sum_{k=1}^K w_{k,l} \quad (20)$$

where $w_{k,l}$ is the tensor uploaded by client k . To calculate the client drift from the mean across clients, the Euclidean distance between the client update and the mean is computed:

$$D_{k,l} = \|w_{k,l} - \bar{w}_l\|_2 \quad (21)$$

The L_2 norm is used here because model parameters exist within a Euclidean space. It is computationally efficient and gives an accurate measurement of how far every client update deviates from the mean across clients.

3.8.2 Inverse-Distance Weighting

Each client receives an unnormalised weight calculated using its drift:

$$\alpha_{k,l} = \frac{1}{D_{k,l} + \epsilon} \quad (22)$$

where $\epsilon = 10^{-6}$ avoids division by zero. This therefore gives more weight to clients that are near consensus and proportionally less weight to clients that are far from consensus.

The inverse approach is preferred to an exponential, e.g., $\exp(-\beta D_{k,l})$, as it has the following advantages:

- It does not require any additional sensitivity parameter β .
- It will not cause a complete collapse of weights toward 0 in the case of large values of $D_{k,l}$.
- A smooth heavy-tailed profile of decay in the weights is achieved.

Weights are normalized so that they sum to 1:

$$\hat{\alpha}_{k,l} = \frac{\alpha_{k,l}}{\sum_{j=1}^K \alpha_{j,l}} \quad (23)$$

The total combined Group B tensor is:

$$\theta_{B,l}^{t+1} = \sum_{k=1}^K \hat{\alpha}_{k,l} \cdot w_{k,l} \quad (24)$$

3.8.3 Convergence Analysis (Informal Argument)

Assumptions. The following informal argument assumes that each local objective F_k is L -smooth (i.e., $\|\nabla F_k(\mathbf{u}) - \nabla F_k(\mathbf{v})\| \leq L\|\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}\|$ for all $\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v}$) and that stochastic gradient noise has bounded second

1 moment. This analysis is not a formal convergence proof and does not derive a rate; its purpose is to make
2 precise the intuitive stability benefit of drift-aware attenuation under standard conditions.

3 Let $\Delta_k^t = \mathbf{w}_k^t - \mathbf{w}^t$ denote the local update of client k at round t . Standard FedAvg combines updates
4 as:

$$\mathbf{w}^{t+1} = \mathbf{w}^t + \sum_{k=1}^K p_k \Delta_k^t \quad (25)$$

5 where $p_k = n_k/N$. In FedSA-Drift, each Group B update is attenuated by a scalar factor $\gamma_k^t \in (0, 1]$
6 derived from the inverse-distance weight $\hat{\alpha}_{k,l}$, giving an effective update $\tilde{\Delta}_k^t = \gamma_k^t \Delta_k^t$:

$$\mathbf{w}^{t+1} = \mathbf{w}^t + \sum_{k=1}^K p_k \tilde{\Delta}_k^t \quad (26)$$

7 Since $\gamma_k^t \leq 1$ for all k , the ℓ_2 norm of the aggregate step is bounded:

$$\left\| \sum_{k=1}^K p_k \tilde{\Delta}_k^t \right\|_2 \leq \left\| \sum_{k=1}^K p_k \Delta_k^t \right\|_2 \quad (27)$$

8 Clients with the largest drift (large $D_{k,l}$, hence small γ_k^t) receive the smallest weight, pulling the
9 aggregate toward the cross-client consensus.

10 We must be explicit about the gap between this expression and Algorithm 2. Equation (27) holds for an
11 aggregate of the form $\sum_k p_k \gamma_k \Delta_k$ with size weights $p_k = n_k/N$ retained and $\gamma_k \leq 1$ applied on top. The
12 implemented Group B rule does not do this: it *replaces* the size weights with normalised inverse-distance
13 weights $\hat{\alpha}_{k,l}$ that sum to one, so a client close to consensus can receive a weight substantially larger than
14 its p_k . The contraction in Equation (27) therefore does not follow for the algorithm as implemented, and
15 we do not claim it does. A second gap is that the aggregation rules of Equation (24) and its Group A
16 counterpart combine parameters $\mathbf{w}_{k,l}$ whereas Equations (27) onward reason about updates Δ_k ; these
17 coincide only when every client starts the round from the same point, which holds for Groups A and B
18 but not for the personalized Group C.

19 What follows below should accordingly be read as motivation for why down-weighting divergent
20 clients is expected to reduce round-to-round oscillation, not as a proof about the deployed procedure.
21 A convergence analysis of normalised inverse-distance aggregation is left to future work.

22 3.8.4 Properties and Failure Modes of the Weighting

23 The weight assigned to client k for parameter tensor l is $\hat{\alpha}_{k,l} = (D_{k,l} + \epsilon)^{-1} / \sum_j (D_{j,l} + \epsilon)^{-1}$ with
24 $\epsilon = 10^{-6}$. Three properties follow directly and should be stated, since two of them are potential failure
25 modes.

1 *The scheme can be dominated by a single client.* Writing $D_{\min}$ and $D_{\max}$ for the smallest and largest
 2 drift among the K clients,

$$\hat{\alpha}_{\max} \leq \left[1 + (K-1) \frac{D_{\min} + \epsilon}{D_{\max} + \epsilon} \right]^{-1}. \quad (28)$$

3 As $D_{\min} \rightarrow 0$ with $\epsilon \ll D_{\max}$, this bound approaches 1: a client whose Group B parameters coincide
 4 with the cross-client mean absorbs essentially the entire aggregate. Because $\bar{\mathbf{w}}_l$ is the unweighted mean,
 5 $\sum_k (\mathbf{w}_{k,l} - \bar{\mathbf{w}}_l) = 0$, so $D_{\min}$ cannot vanish unless all clients are identical; but it can become small, and
 6 the guard against this is ϵ alone. We did not observe divergence at any setting tested, including $\alpha=0.1$, but
 7 we have not characterised the regime in which it would occur, and a bounded or temperature-controlled
 8 variant would be the natural remedy.

9 *Dataset size is discarded, and the resulting bias must be stated.* Unlike FedAvg, the Group B rule
 10 does not weight by n_k : a client holding 1,015 samples and one holding 11,339 are treated identically if
 11 their drift is equal. This is deliberate, but it changes the objective being optimised and warrants a formal
 12 statement.

13 Federated averaging with $p_k = n_k/N$ is the natural estimator for the pooled empirical risk $F(\mathbf{w}) =$
 14 $\sum_k p_k F_k(\mathbf{w})$, in the sense that the aggregate is an unbiased combination of per-client quantities under
 15 that weighting. Replacing p_k with $\hat{\alpha}_{k,l}$ introduces a per-tensor bias

$$\mathbf{b}_l = \sum_{k=1}^K (\hat{\alpha}_{k,l} - p_k) \mathbf{w}_{k,l}, \quad (29)$$

16 so the aggregate no longer estimates the minimiser of F . The magnitude of $\mathbf{b}_l$ is governed by the
 17 relationship between drift and dataset size. Where the two are positively associated—large clients
 18 producing more stable, near-consensus updates because they hold more data—the reweighting is mild
 19 and $\hat{\alpha}_{k,l} \approx p_k$. Where they are negatively associated, the reweighting is large and deliberate.

20 The $\alpha=0.1$ partition is the second case, and it is the case the method is built for. Client 2 holds 52.7%
 21 of the federation's data yet contains only four of the eight classes and no melanoma at all. Under size
 22 weighting it determines the aggregate, which is precisely the mechanism producing the zero melanoma
 23 recall documented in Section 4.5.1; under inverse-distance weighting its influence is reduced to the extent
 24 that its parameters diverge from consensus. The bias in Equation (29) is therefore not incidental—it is the
 25 effect being sought. What FedSA-Drift optimises is closer to a robust consensus among clients than to the
 26 pooled empirical risk, and we should describe it that way rather than as an unbiased federated estimator.

27 Clinically, this is a defensible trade in a specific circumstance and a poor one in others. A federation
 28 containing a large referral centre with a skewed case mix is the motivating case: size weighting hands that
 29 centre the model, and the resulting model can fail silently on categories it rarely sees. Where instead the
 30 largest site is also the most representative—a plausible and common situation—discarding n_k discards
 31 genuine statistical information, and FedSA-Drift would be expected to underperform FedAvg. We have
 32 not tested that regime. Combined with the concentration bound above, the failure mode to be aware of
 33 is a small site whose parameters sit near the mean acquiring influence disproportionate to the evidence it
 34 contributes.

35 An obvious middle ground, $\hat{\alpha}_{k,l} \propto n_k/(D_{k,l} + \epsilon)$, retains size information while still suppressing
 36 divergence and would interpolate between the two objectives. We did not evaluate it, and we do not claim
 37 the size-free form is optimal.

1 *On the choice of Euclidean distance.* The reviewer question of whether cosine similarity would serve
 2 better admits a partly analytical answer, because the two are not interchangeable in this formulation.
 3 Every client begins the round from the same broadcast point, so $\mathbf{w}_{k,l} = \mathbf{w}_l^t + \Delta_{k,l}$ where $\Delta_{k,l}$ is client
 4 k 's local update. The cross-client mean is $\bar{\mathbf{w}}_l = \bar{\mathbf{w}}_l^t + \bar{\Delta}_l$, and therefore

$$D_{k,l} = \|\mathbf{w}_{k,l} - \bar{\mathbf{w}}_l\|_2 = \|\Delta_{k,l} - \bar{\Delta}_l\|_2. \quad (30)$$

5 The shared component cancels exactly. Although the rule is written over parameters, it measures the
 6 deviation of each client's *update* from the mean update, which is the quantity of interest.

7 Cosine similarity has no such property. Since $\|\Delta_{k,l}\| \ll \|\mathbf{w}_l^t\|$ after a single local epoch, $\cos(\mathbf{w}_{k,l}, \bar{\mathbf{w}}_l) =$
 8 $1 - \mathcal{O}(\|\Delta\|^2/\|\mathbf{w}^t\|^2)$ for every client: the measure is dominated by the shared broadcast point and is near-
 9 degenerate. In a numerical check with $\|\Delta\|/\|\mathbf{w}^t\| = 0.04$, representative of one local epoch at our learning
 10 rates, the spread of cosine similarities across five clients was 1.4×10^{-5} , against a spread of 1.7×10^{-2} for
 11 the same quantity computed on the updates. Substituting cosine for Euclidean in Equation (30) without
 12 also re-centring would therefore produce weights that are essentially uniform, and the method would
 13 degenerate to plain averaging over Group B.

14 The meaningful alternative is cosine similarity on the updates, $\cos(\Delta_{k,l}, \bar{\Delta}_l)$, which discards magnitude
 15 and penalises only directional disagreement. This is a substantively different criterion: it would treat a
 16 client that moved far along the consensus direction as undrifted, whereas the Euclidean rule penalises it.
 17 Which is preferable is an empirical question we have not settled, and we make no claim of optimality
 18 for the Euclidean form. We note only that it is not arbitrary—by Equation (30) it is the natural metric on
 19 updates—and that the naive substitution the question suggests would not work. Softmax, exponential and
 20 inverse-square weightings likewise remain untested.

21 Applying the standard descent lemma for L -smooth objectives and taking expectations over the
 22 stochastic gradient noise:

$$\mathbb{E}[F(\mathbf{w}^{t+1})] \leq F(\mathbf{w}^t) - \eta \|\nabla F(\mathbf{w}^t)\|^2 + \frac{\eta^2 L}{2} \mathbb{E} \left\| \sum_k p_k \tilde{\Delta}_k^t \right\|^2 \quad (31)$$

23 The third term—the noise amplification from the aggregate step—is bounded above by the
 24 corresponding FedAvg quantity via Eq. (27). Intuitively, by suppressing drifted updates, FedSA-Drift
 25 reduces the round-to-round oscillation of the global model without altering local training objectives.
 26 Deriving tight convergence rates under non-IID data and formally bounding gradient divergence under
 27 this aggregation scheme are left to future theoretical analysis.

28 3.9 Step 7: End-to-End Federated Training Process

29 Algorithm 1 shows the centralized baseline. Algorithm 2 shows the full FedSA-Drift federated
 30 procedure across T communication rounds.

31 Compared to the centralized system (Algorithm 1), the federated implementation (Algorithm 2) is
 32 structurally different. In centralized training, optimization runs directly on the pooled data, while in
 33 federated training, clients perform on-site training and the server enforces a global consensus over the
 34 shared backbone. The Group C parameters that clients create using their on-site data are never sent to the

Algorithm 1 Centralized Training Baseline

Require: Dataset $\mathcal{D} = \bigcup_{k=1}^K \mathcal{D}_k$, pretrained backbone weights θ_A^0, θ_B^0 , total epochs E , learning rate η

Ensure: Trained model parameters θ^E

- 1: Initialize model: $\theta^0 \leftarrow \{\theta_A^0, \theta_B^0, \theta_C^0\}$
 - 2: **for** epoch $e = 1$ to E **do**
 - 3: **for** each mini-batch $(x_i, m_i, y_i) \in \mathcal{D}$ **do**
 - 4: Compute logits: $\hat{y}_i = f_\theta(x_i, m_i)$
 - 5: Compute class-weighted CE loss with label smoothing:
- $$\mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L}_{CE}^{\text{weighted}}(\hat{y}_i, y_i)$$
- 6: Update via AdamW with cosine LR schedule:
- $$\theta \leftarrow \theta - \eta \nabla_\theta \mathcal{L}$$
- 7: **end for**
 - 8: Evaluate on test set; record Balanced Accuracy, F1, ROC-AUC
 - 9: **end for**
 - 10: **return** θ^E

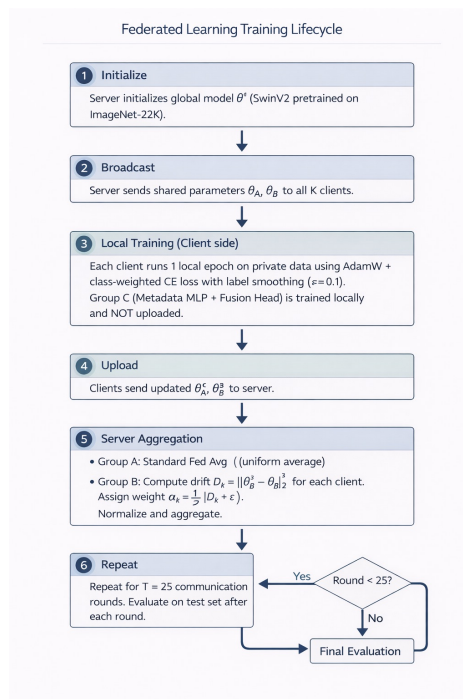


Figure 4. Federated training lifecycle across communication rounds.

- 1 server. This structure preserves the privacy of institutional metadata while still providing the capability
- 2 for institutional specialisation.
- 3 3.9.1 Training Flow Diagram
- 4 Figure 4 illustrates one communication round of the training process.

Algorithm 2 FedSA-Drift: Structure-Aware Federated Training with Drift-Aware Aggregation**Require:** K clients with local datasets $\{\mathcal{D}_k\}_{k=1}^K$, rounds T , local epochs E , learning rate η , $\epsilon = 10^{-6}$ **Ensure:** Global shared parameters θ_A^T, θ_B^T ; local parameters $\{\theta_{C,k}^T\}$

```

1: Server: Initialize  $\theta_A^0, \theta_B^0$  from pretrained SwinV2-Base
2: Each client  $k$  initializes local head  $\theta_{C,k}^0$  independently
3: for round  $t = 1$  to  $T$  do
4:   Server broadcasts  $\theta_A^t, \theta_B^t$  to all  $K$  clients
5:   for each client  $k = 1$  to  $K$  (in parallel) do
6:     Load received backbone:  $\theta_{A,k} \leftarrow \theta_A^t, \theta_{B,k} \leftarrow \theta_B^t$ 
7:     for local epoch  $e = 1$  to  $E$  do
8:       for each mini-batch  $(x_i^k, m_i^k, y_i^k) \in \mathcal{D}_k$  do
9:          $\hat{y}_i^k = g_{\theta_{C,k}}(h_{\theta_{A,k}, \theta_{B,k}}(x_i^k), m_i^k)$ 
10:         $\mathcal{L}_k = \mathcal{L}_{CE}^{\text{weighted}}(\hat{y}_i^k, y_i^k)$ 
11:        Update all local params via AdamW (diff. LR):  $\theta_{A,k}, \theta_{B,k}, \theta_{C,k} \leftarrow \text{AdamW}(\mathcal{L}_k, \eta)$ 
12:      end for
13:    end for
14:    Upload  $\theta_{A,k}^{t+1}, \theta_{B,k}^{t+1}$  to server (Group C stays local)
15:  end for
16:  Server: Group A aggregation (standard FedAvg):

```

$$\theta_A^{t+1} = \sum_{k=1}^K \frac{n_k}{N} \theta_{A,k}^{t+1}$$

```

17: Server: Group B drift-aware aggregation:
18: for each parameter tensor  $l \in \theta_B$  do
19:   Compute cross-client mean:  $\bar{w}_l = \frac{1}{K} \sum_{k=1}^K w_{k,l}$ 
20:   Compute per-client drift:  $D_{k,l} = \|w_{k,l} - \bar{w}_l\|_2$ 
21:   Compute inverse-drift weights:  $\alpha_{k,l} = \frac{1}{D_{k,l} + \epsilon}$ 
22:   Normalize:  $\hat{\alpha}_{k,l} = \alpha_{k,l} / \sum_{j=1}^K \alpha_{j,l}$ 
23:   Aggregate:  $\theta_{B,l}^{t+1} = \sum_{k=1}^K \hat{\alpha}_{k,l} w_{k,l}$ 
24: end for
25: Evaluate global model  $(\theta_A^{t+1}, \theta_B^{t+1})$  on test set
26: end for
27: return  $\theta_A^T, \theta_B^T, \{\theta_{C,k}^T\}_{k=1}^K$ 

```

3.10 Dataset

FedSA-Drift is evaluated on the ISIC 2019 dataset, which consists of 25,331 dermoscopic images that encompass eight categories: Melanoma (MEL), Melanocytic Nevus (NV), Basal Cell Carcinoma (BCC), Actinic Keratosis (AK), Benign Keratosis (BKL), Dermatofibroma (DF), Vascular Lesion (VASC) and Squamous Cell Carcinoma (SCC). The unknown UNK class was removed before training. A separate test set of 8,238 images is available for final evaluation.

3.11 Data Accounting

Because several reported quantities depend on exactly which images are used where, we state the split arithmetic in full.

The ISIC 2019 training archive contains 25,331 labelled dermoscopic images across the eight classes. We hold out a stratified 15% validation split of 3,800 images; the remaining **21,531** images form the training partition that is distributed across clients by the Dirichlet procedure. Summing the per-client class counts reported in Section 4.3.3 reproduces this figure exactly ($1015 + 2687 + 11339 + 4945 + 1545 = 21,531$), and the per-class totals reconcile with the archive: for example melanoma contributes 3,844 images to the training partition and 678 to the validation split, together the 4,522 melanoma images the archive contains. No image appears in more than one split, although sibling images of the same lesion do; this is quantified in the Limitations section and bounds how the validation figures should be read.

The ISIC 2019 *test* collection is a separate set of 8,238 images and is not drawn from the 25,331. Its released ground truth assigns 2,047 of those images to an UNK (outlier) category that lies outside our eight-class label space; since the model has no UNK output, these are excluded and all test-split results are computed on the remaining **6,191** labelled images. Melanoma accounts for 1,327 of them. These 1,327 test melanomas are distinct from the 4,522 in the training archive; the two collections are disjoint, and the melanoma counts should not be summed against the archive total.

One consequence is worth stating plainly. The centralized balanced accuracy of 0.8867 is measured on the internal validation split, which is drawn from the same archive as the training data. It is therefore not comparable with balanced accuracies reported on the ISIC 2019 test collection by challenge entries, and we do not present it as such. Our own test-split figures are substantially lower than our validation figures across every configuration—for example 0.3681 against 0.4382 for FedSA-Drift at $\alpha=0.1$ —which is the expected consequence of evaluating on a genuinely held-out collection.

The images are resized to 384×384 pixels and normalised using ImageNet statistics ($\mu = [0.485, 0.456, 0.406]$, $\sigma = [0.229, 0.224, 0.225]$). The augmentation applied to the training images varies and includes random resized crops, random horizontal and vertical flips, rotations up to 45° , color jittering, RandAugment (2 ops, magnitude 9) and random erasing ($p = 0.3$). All augmentations are applied during the training process only.

3.12 Federated Data Partitioning

The 21,531 samples of the training partition (Section 3.11) are distributed across K clients in accordance with a Dirichlet distribution centered at the concentration parameter α . For instance, $\alpha = 1.0$ simulates near-IID conditions, $\alpha = 0.5$ simulates moderately heterogeneous class distributions, and $\alpha = 0.1$ simulates severe skew in which individual clients may hold no samples at all for several classes. All three values are evaluated in this work. Each client is allocated a minimum of 2 class labels and at least 100 samples. If the partition does not pass these criteria, a new random seed is attempted, for a maximum of 50 times.

3.13 Model Architecture

The model architecture consists of a SwinV2-Base (swinv2_base_window12to24_192to384, pre-trained on ImageNet-22K) backbone combined with a metadata branch. The SwinV2-Base implements shifted-window self-attention using 4 hierarchical levels to produce a 1024-dimensional feature representation from images. A two-layer metadata MLP ($13 \rightarrow 128 \rightarrow 128$ with GELU activation and dropout) provides a 128-dimensional feature representation of the age, sex, and anatomical site of each patient. This gives a total of 1152 dimensions as a concatenation of 1024 dimensions from the images and 128 dimensions from the metadata. The combined 1152-dimensional representation is then

input to a fusion head that reduces the representation from $1152 \rightarrow 512 \rightarrow 8$ to classify each lesion into one of eight categories.

3.14 Training Protocol

The centralized baseline is trained on the same 21,531-image training partition with no client split, for 25 epochs, and is evaluated on the same 3,800-image validation split. It therefore serves as an upper bound under identical data conditions, not as a comparison against externally reported numbers.

Using federated training, FedAvg is used as the baseline aggregation method. The process for each communication round is as follows:

1. The global model is broadcast from the server to all K clients.
2. Each client performs local training on its own data.
3. Each client uploads the parameters to the server for both Group A and Group B.
4. The server combines the updates and sends out a new global model.

A total of 25 communication rounds are completed. The local training loss is computed using class-weighted cross-entropy with label smoothing ($\epsilon_s = 0.1$):

$$\mathcal{L}_k = \mathcal{L}_{CE}^{\text{weighted}}(f_{\theta}(x^k, m^k), y^k) \quad (32)$$

Both drift correction and aggregation updates are completed only at the server; therefore, all local training objectives remain unchanged.

3.15 Optimization Details

The AdamW optimizer is configured via hyperparameters ($\beta_1 = 0.9$, $\beta_2 = 0.999$, weight decay 10^{-2}) with differential learning rates. The SwinV2 backbone uses 0.1η , while $\eta = 4 \times 10^{-4}$ is used for the metadata MLP and the fusion head. The learning rate schedule consists of a cosine decay following a linear warmup of 2 epochs. Gradient clipping is applied so that gradients remain at most 1.0.

Each class is weighted by the inverse of its class frequency. At every round, the `WeightedRandomSampler` oversamples the low-frequency classes at each client. A single batch size of 32 (16 per optimizer step with 2 gradient accumulation steps (effective batch 32 on one device)) is used during centralized training. The batch size is set to 16 with 1 local epoch per round at each federated client.

All experiments were completed using FP16 mixed precision on a single NVIDIA A40 GPU with 48 GB of RAM. All federated experiments are simulated rather than deployed: clients are trained sequentially within a single process, so no network communication takes place. The $\alpha \in \{0.5, 1.0\}$ configurations were each run on one NVIDIA A40; the three $\alpha=0.1$ configurations were run concurrently on three A40s, one configuration per device, which affects wall-clock time only.

3.16 Evaluation Metrics

Two evaluation sets are used and are kept distinct throughout. Round-by-round metrics during training, and every figure reporting communication rounds, are computed on the 3,800-image *validation* split. Results labelled *test* are computed on the separate ISIC 2019 test collection, restricted to its 6,191 labelled images as described in Section 3.11. The following metrics are reported:

- 1 • Top-1 Accuracy and Balanced Accuracy
- 2 • Macro F1-Score and Macro ROC-AUC
- 3 • Macro Average Precision
- 4 • Per-class classification report and confusion matrix

5 In addition to the above metrics, fairness evaluation is performed using:

- 6 • Worst-case client accuracy (minimum across all clients)
- 7 • Inter-client standard deviation of accuracy

8 Every dispersion percentage reported in this paper is a reduction in this *standard deviation*, not in its
 9 square. For reference, a 39% reduction in standard deviation corresponds to a 62.4% reduction in variance;
 10 we quote the former throughout.

4 RESULTS AND DISCUSSION

11 The performance of FedSA-Drift is assessed along three dimensions: global classification accuracy, worst-
 12 client fairness and computational efficiency. Numerical comparisons with recent state-of-the-art methods
 13 are also provided.

14 4.1 Centralized Upper Bound Performance

15 FedSA-Drift was trained in a centralized fashion on the 21,531-image training partition for 25 epochs,
 16 reaching a peak Balanced Accuracy of **0.8867** at Epoch 21 on the internal validation split. This figure
 17 serves only as a reference ceiling obtained under data conditions identical to the federated runs. It is not
 18 a generalization estimate: the validation split shares lesions with the training partition (see Limitations),
 19 and it is not comparable with balanced accuracies reported on the official ISIC 2019 test collection. Top-
 20 1 Accuracy at this point was 0.8566, Macro ROC-AUC was 0.9607 and Macro F1-score was 0.8237.
 21 Epoch 21 is the maximum rather than the onset of a plateau: balanced accuracy is lower at Epochs 22–25.
 22 We also note that this epoch is selected on the same validation split on which the figure is reported, so
 23 0.8867 is an optimistically selected value and is used here only as a reference ceiling under matched data
 24 conditions. Training curves can be found in Figure 5. The terminal output is also available in Figure 6.

25 The centralized baseline is reported here only as an internal reference ceiling; we make no comparison
 26 against externally reported figures, for the reasons given in Section 3.11 and the Limitations.

27 4.2 Consolidated Federated Performance

28 The results from each experimental configuration have been summarized in Table 2. These summary
 29 results consist of the centralized upper bound together with the three levels of Dirichlet heterogeneity
 30 ($\alpha \in \{1.0, 0.5, 0.1\}$) and the aggregation schemes evaluated at each, including the no-decomposition
 31 FedAvg baseline added at $\alpha=0.1$. All comparisons made after this step reference Table 2.

32 4.3 Mitigating Exacerbated Drift and Ensuring Client Fairness

33 In multimodal federated networks that keep metadata heads local but share a common backbone, client
 34 drift can be exacerbated as the visual backbone is driven toward different local optima (Zhu et al., 2025).
 35 This paper confirms this through experiments with FedSA-Drift and describes it in more detail below.

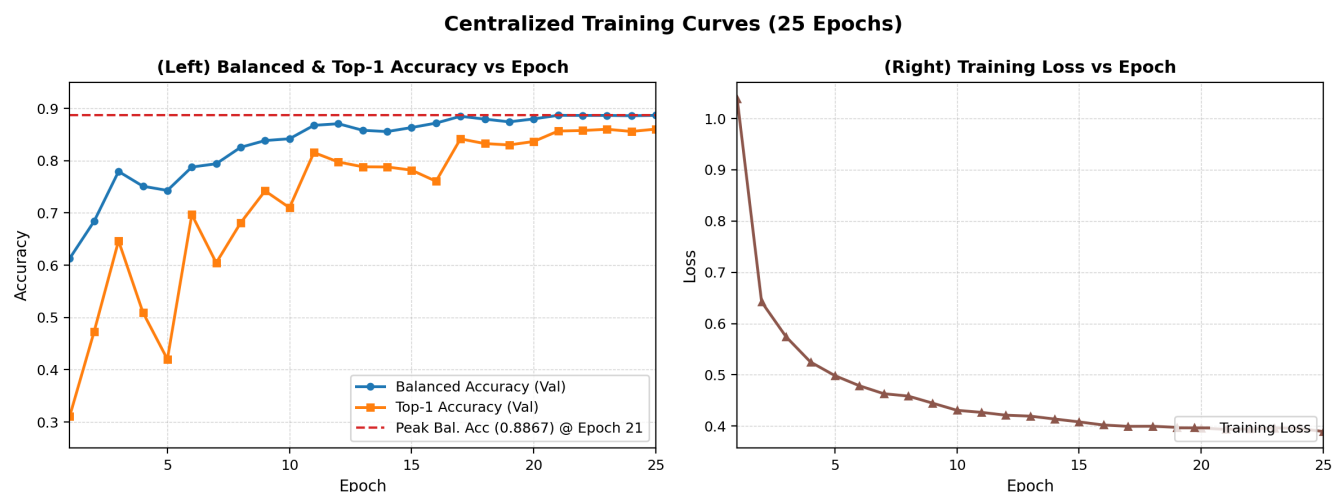


Figure 5. Centralized training curves over 25 epochs: (Left) Balanced Accuracy and Top-1 Accuracy; (Right) Training Loss. Peak Balanced Accuracy of 0.8867 is reached at Epoch 21.

Table 2. Consolidated Performance of FedSA-Drift Across All Experimental Configurations

Experiment	Config (α , K)	Drift Strategy	Global Bal. Acc	Worst Client Acc	Std Dev (Acc)	Avg Round Time
Centralized	N/A	N/A	0.8867	N/A	N/A	1066 s
Fed-2 (Baseline)	$\alpha=1.0$, $K=3$	Uniform (Off)	0.8314	0.6479	0.0182	1297 s
Fed-1 (Ours)	$\alpha=1.0$, $K=3$	Adaptive (On)	0.8209	0.7850	0.0076	1301 s
Fed-4 (Baseline)	$\alpha=0.5$, $K=5$	Uniform (Off)	0.7622	0.4800	0.0833	1439 s
Fed-3 (Ours)	$\alpha=0.5$, $K=5$	Adaptive (On)	0.7066	0.5705	0.0511	1450 s
Fed-7 (FedAvg) [†]	$\alpha=0.1$, $K=5$	No decomposition	0.4460	—	—	1229 s
Fed-6 (Baseline)	$\alpha=0.1$, $K=5$	Uniform (Off)	0.4477	0.1953	0.1294	1398 s
Fed-5 (Ours)	$\alpha=0.1$, $K=5$	Adaptive (On)	0.5196	0.4297	0.0551	1397 s

[†]Fed-7 removes the A/B/C decomposition entirely, so no client-specific head exists and every client evaluates an identical model; worst-client accuracy and inter-client dispersion are undefined for this configuration rather than favourable. Its Global Bal. Acc is also the only entry in this column produced by a fully aggregated network: for the decomposed arms the shared model carries the common initial Group C head rather than an aggregated one (see Limitations).

The column is comparable within the decomposed family but not across it; Table 4 gives the like-for-like per-client comparison.

4.3.1 Near-IID Setting ($\alpha = 1.0$, $K = 3$)

With $K=3$ clients and $\alpha=1.0$, the class distributions are nearly uniform across clients. Two different aggregation methodologies are compared: 1) standard FedAvg, and 2) FedSA-Drift that uses drift-aware weighting on Group B.

Under these mild levels of client heterogeneity, FedAvg achieves a balanced global accuracy of 0.8314; however, the worst-performing client drops to 0.6479, which would not be apparent from the global average. Using FedSA-Drift, the worst-client accuracy increases by **+13.71 points** to 0.7850, and the inter-client standard deviation decreases by **58%** from 0.0182 to 0.0076 (observed in a single experimental trial). Measured on the shared global model, FedSA-Drift reaches 92.6% and the uniform-aggregation baseline 93.8% of the centralized balanced accuracy, both on the same internal validation split.

The round-by-round training curves and terminal outputs (Figures 7 and 8) clearly demonstrate that the two methodologies converge toward the centralized upper bound, and that FedSA-Drift achieves a tighter client accuracy band and a higher worst-client floor compared to FedAvg.


```

[2026-02-24 02:07:39] [INFO] Starting training - 25 epochs
[2026-02-24 02:25:27] [INFO] Epoch 1/25 | Train Loss=1.0384 Acc=0.3821 | Val Loss=2.3927 Acc=0.3111 BalAcc=0.6130 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 02:25:27] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.476 NV=0.434 BCC=0.768 AK=0.538 BKL=0.498 DF=0.806 VASC=0.974 SCC=0.670
[2026-02-24 02:25:27] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.3111 **
[2026-02-24 02:43:25] [INFO] Epoch 2/25 | Train Loss=0.6422 Acc=0.6183 | Val Loss=2.2011 Acc=0.4729 BalAcc=0.6840 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 02:43:25] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.571 NV=0.552 BCC=0.830 AK=0.600 BKL=0.598 DF=0.833 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.713
[2026-02-24 02:43:25] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.4729 **
[2026-02-24 03:01:22] [INFO] Epoch 3/25 | Train Loss=0.5743 Acc=0.7020 | Val Loss=2.0775 Acc=0.6466 BalAcc=0.7793 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 03:01:22] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.679 NV=0.642 BCC=0.870 AK=0.677 BKL=0.723 DF=0.861 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.755
[2026-02-24 03:01:22] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.6466 **
[2026-02-24 03:19:18] [INFO] Epoch 4/25 | Train Loss=0.5250 Acc=0.7619 | Val Loss=2.1070 Acc=0.5095 BalAcc=0.7510 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 03:19:18] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.643 NV=0.618 BCC=0.858 AK=0.654 BKL=0.697 DF=0.861 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.755
[2026-02-24 03:37:07] [INFO] Epoch 5/25 | Train Loss=0.4984 Acc=0.7987 | Val Loss=1.9569 Acc=0.4200 BalAcc=0.7430 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 03:37:07] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.628 NV=0.607 BCC=0.836 AK=0.677 BKL=0.701 DF=0.833 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.713
[2026-02-24 03:54:56] [INFO] Epoch 6/25 | Train Loss=0.4787 Acc=0.8195 | Val Loss=1.9755 Acc=0.6968 BalAcc=0.7877 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 03:54:56] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.703 NV=0.671 BCC=0.886 AK=0.723 BKL=0.740 DF=0.861 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.777
[2026-02-24 03:54:56] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.6968 **
[2026-02-24 04:12:52] [INFO] Epoch 7/25 | Train Loss=0.4631 Acc=0.8428 | Val Loss=1.9985 Acc=0.6045 BalAcc=0.7940 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 04:12:52] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.714 NV=0.688 BCC=0.892 AK=0.723 BKL=0.756 DF=0.861 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.798
[2026-02-24 04:12:52] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.6045 **
[2026-02-24 04:30:46] [INFO] Epoch 8/25 | Train Loss=0.4585 Acc=0.8501 | Val Loss=1.9168 Acc=0.6811 BalAcc=0.8255 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 04:30:46] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.779 NV=0.742 BCC=0.922 AK=0.769 BKL=0.804 DF=0.861 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.819
[2026-02-24 04:30:46] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.6811 **
[2026-02-24 04:48:39] [INFO] Epoch 9/25 | Train Loss=0.4447 Acc=0.8681 | Val Loss=1.8917 Acc=0.7421 BalAcc=0.8384 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 04:48:39] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.800 NV=0.763 BCC=0.934 AK=0.785 BKL=0.815 DF=0.861 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.819
[2026-02-24 04:48:39] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.7421 **
[2026-02-24 05:06:36] [INFO] Epoch 10/25 | Train Loss=0.4307 Acc=0.8828 | Val Loss=1.8881 Acc=0.7100 BalAcc=0.8418 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 05:06:36] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.809 NV=0.774 BCC=0.942 AK=0.785 BKL=0.822 DF=0.861 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 05:06:36] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.7100 **
[2026-02-24 05:24:30] [INFO] Epoch 11/25 | Train Loss=0.4267 Acc=0.8938 | Val Loss=1.8455 Acc=0.8155 BalAcc=0.8675 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 05:24:30] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.857 NV=0.795 BCC=0.958 AK=0.815 BKL=0.849 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 05:24:30] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.8155 **
[2026-02-24 05:42:28] [INFO] Epoch 12/25 | Train Loss=0.4212 Acc=0.9039 | Val Loss=1.8416 Acc=0.7974 BalAcc=0.8706 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 05:42:28] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.865 NV=0.800 BCC=0.960 AK=0.823 BKL=0.851 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 05:42:28] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.7974 **
[2026-02-24 06:00:20] [INFO] Epoch 13/25 | Train Loss=0.4193 Acc=0.9130 | Val Loss=1.8597 Acc=0.7882 BalAcc=0.8580 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 06:00:20] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.850 NV=0.788 BCC=0.954 AK=0.808 BKL=0.839 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.819
[2026-02-24 06:18:09] [INFO] Epoch 14/25 | Train Loss=0.4137 Acc=0.9181 | Val Loss=1.8435 Acc=0.7879 BalAcc=0.8556 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 06:18:09] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.847 NV=0.782 BCC=0.952 AK=0.808 BKL=0.836 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.819
[2026-02-24 06:35:58] [INFO] Epoch 15/25 | Train Loss=0.4081 Acc=0.9261 | Val Loss=1.8598 Acc=0.7818 BalAcc=0.8633 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 06:35:58] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.852 NV=0.797 BCC=0.956 AK=0.823 BKL=0.847 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 06:53:47] [INFO] Epoch 16/25 | Train Loss=0.4020 Acc=0.9373 | Val Loss=1.8370 Acc=0.7605 BalAcc=0.8718 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 06:53:47] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.876 NV=0.804 BCC=0.962 AK=0.831 BKL=0.855 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 06:53:47] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.7605 **
[2026-02-24 07:11:39] [INFO] Epoch 17/25 | Train Loss=0.3994 Acc=0.9405 | Val Loss=1.8032 Acc=0.8416 BalAcc=0.8848 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 07:11:39] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.894 NV=0.812 BCC=0.964 AK=0.838 BKL=0.860 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 07:11:39] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.8416 **
[2026-02-24 07:29:36] [INFO] Epoch 18/25 | Train Loss=0.3996 Acc=0.9421 | Val Loss=1.7984 Acc=0.8326 BalAcc=0.8794 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 07:29:36] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.887 NV=0.812 BCC=0.964 AK=0.838 BKL=0.859 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 07:47:26] [INFO] Epoch 19/25 | Train Loss=0.3974 Acc=0.9497 | Val Loss=1.8186 Acc=0.8300 BalAcc=0.8742 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 07:47:26] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.879 NV=0.812 BCC=0.964 AK=0.838 BKL=0.855 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 08:05:15] [INFO] Epoch 20/25 | Train Loss=0.3961 Acc=0.9529 | Val Loss=1.8036 Acc=0.8366 BalAcc=0.8798 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 08:05:15] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.887 NV=0.812 BCC=0.964 AK=0.838 BKL=0.858 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 08:23:04] [INFO] Epoch 21/25 | Train Loss=0.3935 Acc=0.9547 | Val Loss=1.7923 Acc=0.8566 BalAcc=0.8867 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 08:23:04] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.892 NV=0.816 BCC=0.964 AK=0.838 BKL=0.860 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 08:23:04] [INFO] ** New best val acc: 0.8566 **
[2026-02-24 08:41:00] [INFO] Epoch 22/25 | Train Loss=0.3943 Acc=0.9578 | Val Loss=1.7885 Acc=0.8576 BalAcc=0.8864 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 08:41:00] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.892 NV=0.818 BCC=0.966 AK=0.838 BKL=0.860 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 08:58:54] [INFO] Epoch 23/25 | Train Loss=0.3964 Acc=0.9604 | Val Loss=1.7888 Acc=0.8600 BalAcc=0.8865 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 08:58:54] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.892 NV=0.820 BCC=0.966 AK=0.838 BKL=0.858 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 09:16:47] [INFO] Epoch 24/25 | Train Loss=0.3954 Acc=0.9608 | Val Loss=1.7902 Acc=0.8558 BalAcc=0.8859 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 09:16:47] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.892 NV=0.818 BCC=0.966 AK=0.838 BKL=0.858 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 09:34:37] [INFO] Epoch 25/25 | Train Loss=0.3893 Acc=0.9617 | Val Loss=1.7912 Acc=0.8603 BalAcc=0.8866 | 1066s
[2026-02-24 09:34:37] [INFO] | (Per-class) MEL=0.892 NV=0.822 BCC=0.966 AK=0.838 BKL=0.855 DF=0.889 VASC=1.000 SCC=0.830
[2026-02-24 09:34:43] [INFO] Training complete!
[2026-02-24 09:34:43] [INFO] Best val accuracy : 0.8603
[2026-02-24 09:34:43] [INFO] Best balanced accuracy: 0.8867
[2026-02-24 09:34:43] [INFO] Checkpoints: /workspace/layer-wised-personalised/checkpoints
[2026-02-24 09:34:43] [INFO]

```

Figure 6. Centralized training run terminal output (NVIDIA A40, RunPod): (Top) Epochs 1–13 showing progressive improvement in validation Balanced Accuracy; (Bottom) Epochs 14–25 converging to peak Balanced Accuracy of 0.8867 at Epoch 21, with per-class recall and final training summary.

4.3.2 Moderately Heterogeneous Setting ($\alpha = 0.5$, $K = 5$)

The introduction of significant class imbalance across institutions ($K=5$ and $\alpha=0.5$) produces a more realistic clinical scenario. The use of FedSA-Drift to correct for drift provides an improvement over the worst client (lowest accuracy) of **+9.05 percentage points** from 0.4800 to 0.5705 and reduces the inter-client standard deviation of accuracy by **38.7%** from 0.0833 to 0.0511 (observed in a single experimental trial). The results in Figures 9 and 10 indicate that the convergence of the different model types will be slower and noisier than in the near-IID case. Therefore, the improvement to the performance floor is clearly visible in this comparison.

4.3.3 Severely Heterogeneous Setting ($\alpha = 0.1$, $K = 5$)

At $\alpha=0.1$ the partition becomes genuinely pathological rather than merely imbalanced. Client 1 holds 2687 samples of which 2645 belong to a single class; client 2 holds 11339 samples—53% of the federation—but has no samples at all for melanoma, BCC, AK or VASC; and melanoma itself is

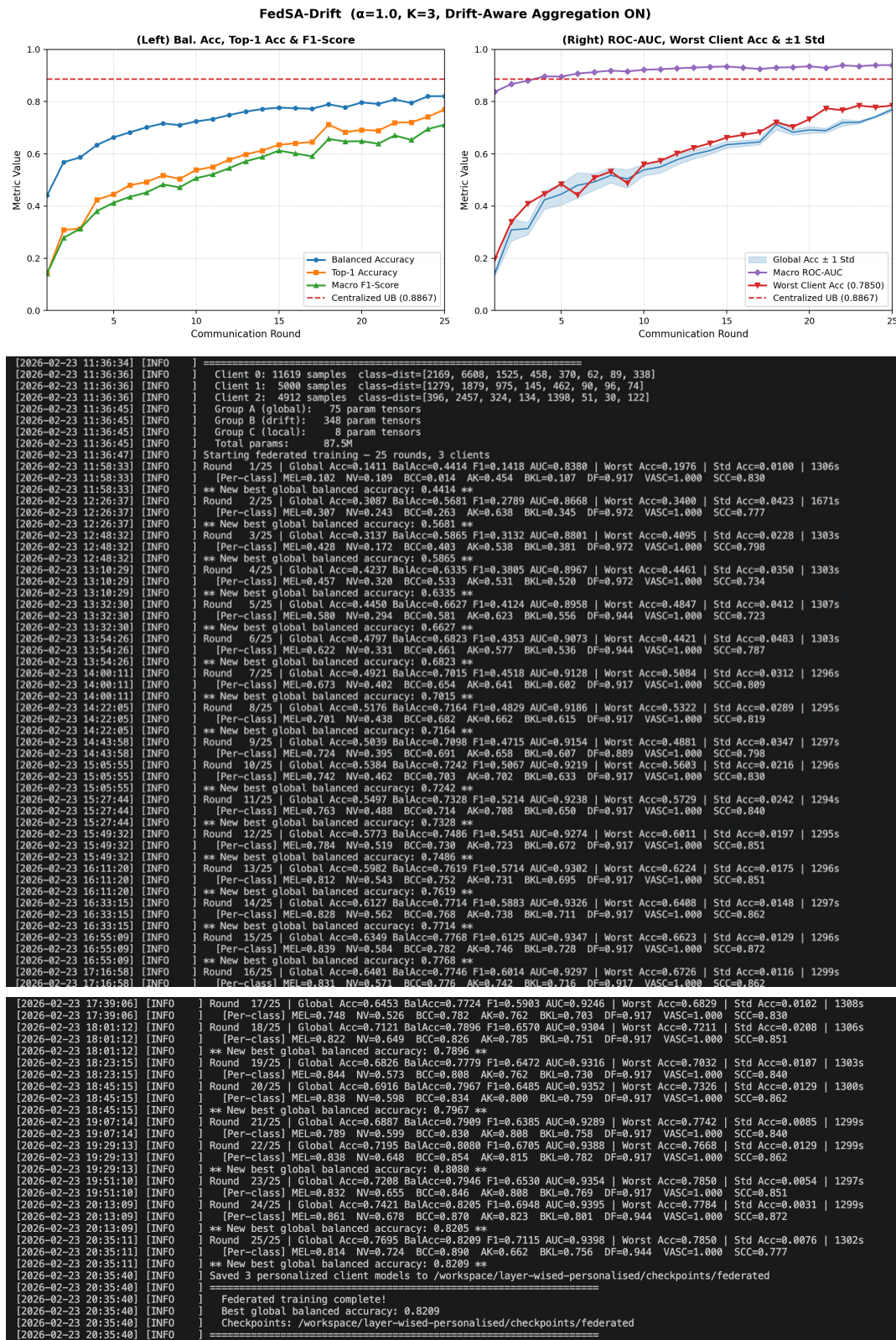


Figure 7. FedSA-Drift near-IID setting ($\alpha=1.0$, $K=3$): top panel shows convergence metrics; middle and bottom panels show terminal outputs (Rounds 1–13 and 14–25). Final Balanced Accuracy: 0.8209, Worst Client Accuracy: 0.7850.

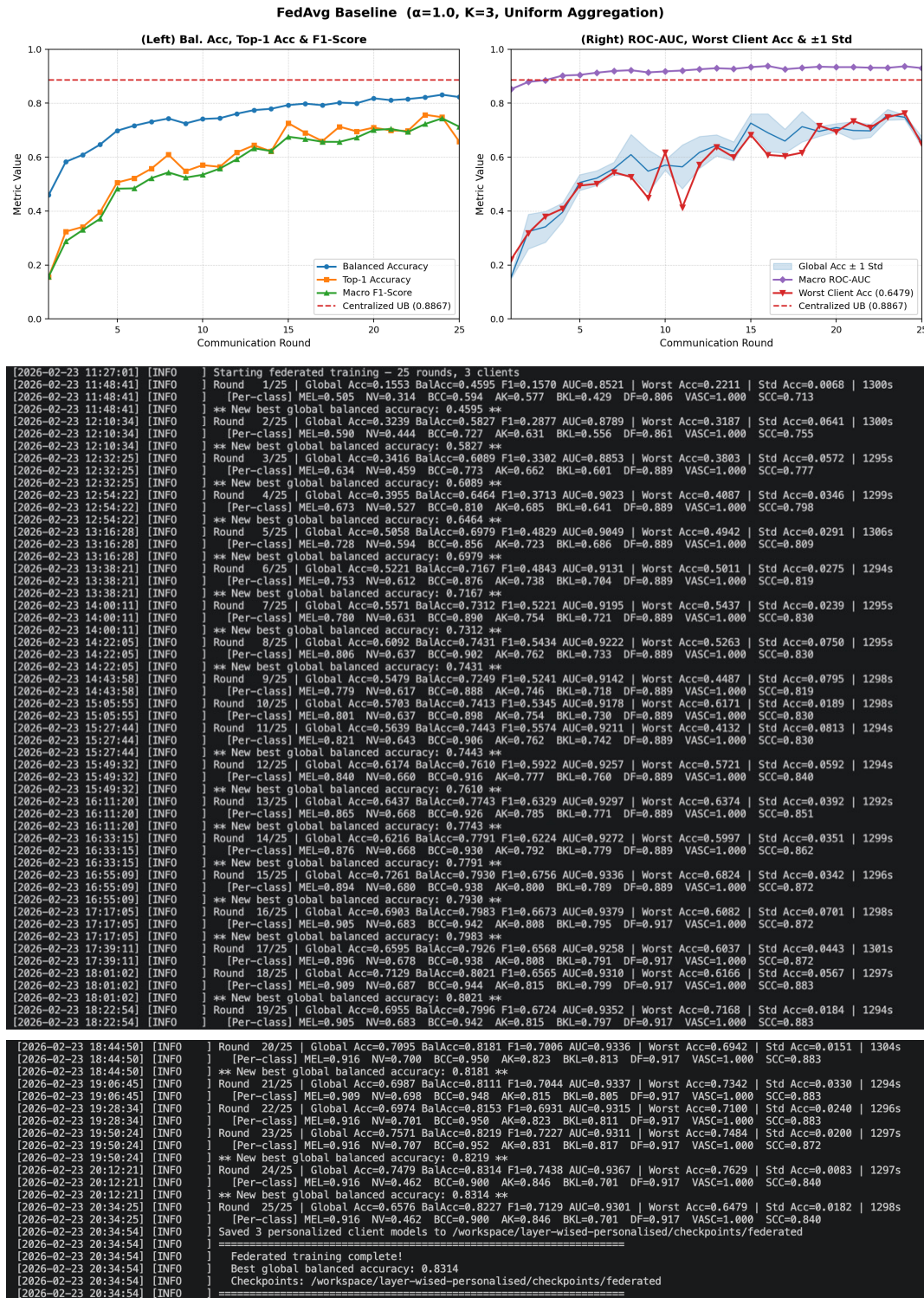


Figure 8. FedAvg near-IID setting ($\alpha=1.0$, $K=3$): top panel shows convergence metrics; middle and bottom panels show terminal outputs (Rounds 1–13 and 14–25). Final Balanced Accuracy: 0.8314, Worst Client Accuracy: 0.6479.

- 1 concentrated almost entirely on client 3, which holds 3815 of the 3844 cases. Three configurations were
- 2 trained on this identical partition: the FedAvg baseline with the decomposition removed (Figure 11),
- 3 decomposition only with drift weighting disabled (Figure 12), and full FedSA-Drift (Figure 13).

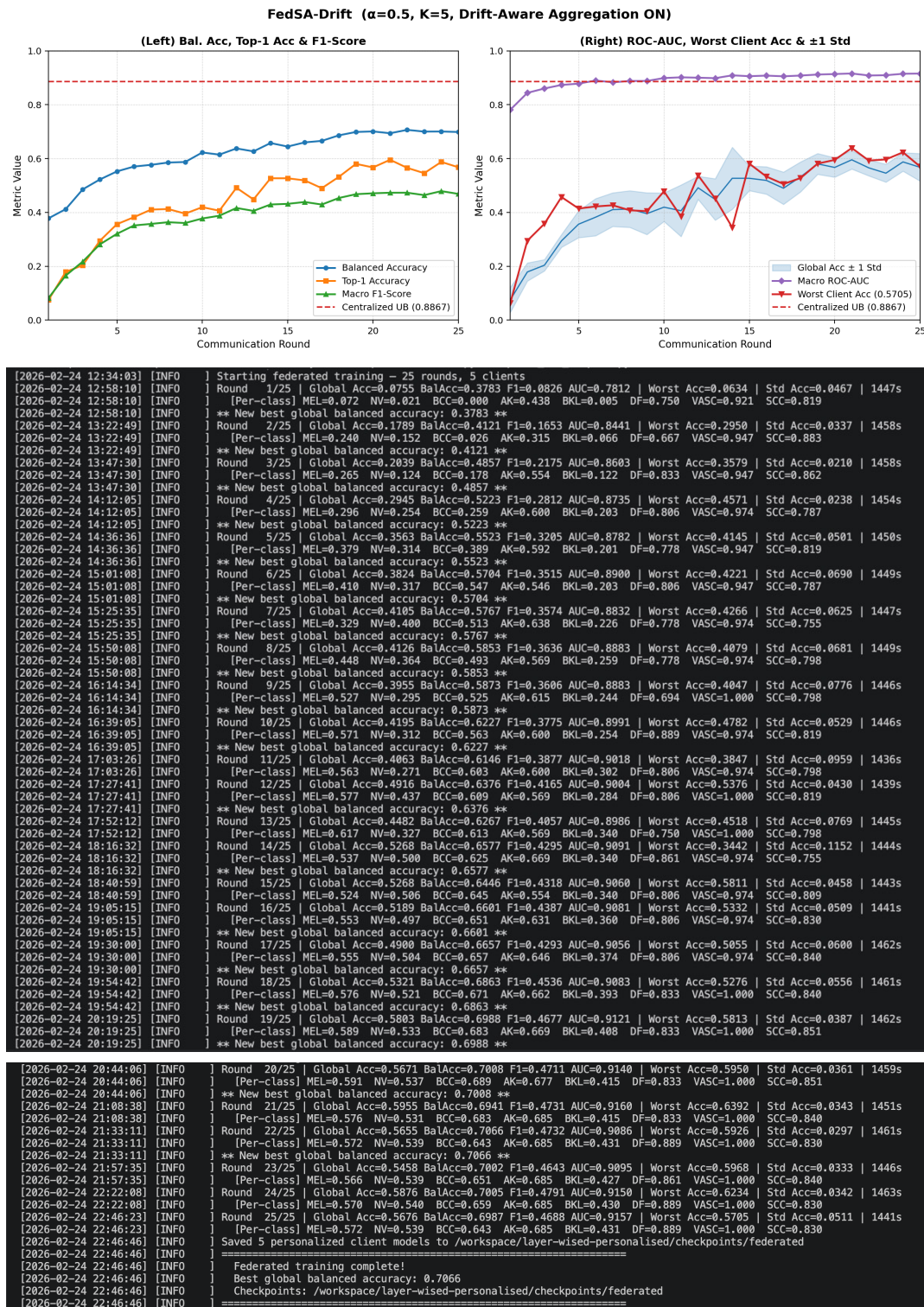


Figure 9. FedSA-Drift non-IID setting ($\alpha=0.5$, $K=5$): top panel shows convergence metrics; middle and bottom panels show terminal outputs (Rounds 1–13 and 14–25). Final Balanced Accuracy: 0.7066, Worst Client Accuracy: 0.5705.

- 1 Comparing the two personalizing configurations, drift-aware weighting raises worst-client accuracy
- 2 by **+23.44 percentage points** from 0.1953 to 0.4297 and reduces the inter-client standard deviation of
- 3 accuracy by **57.4%** from 0.1294 to 0.0551. Both margins exceed those observed at $\alpha=0.5$ and $\alpha=1.0$,

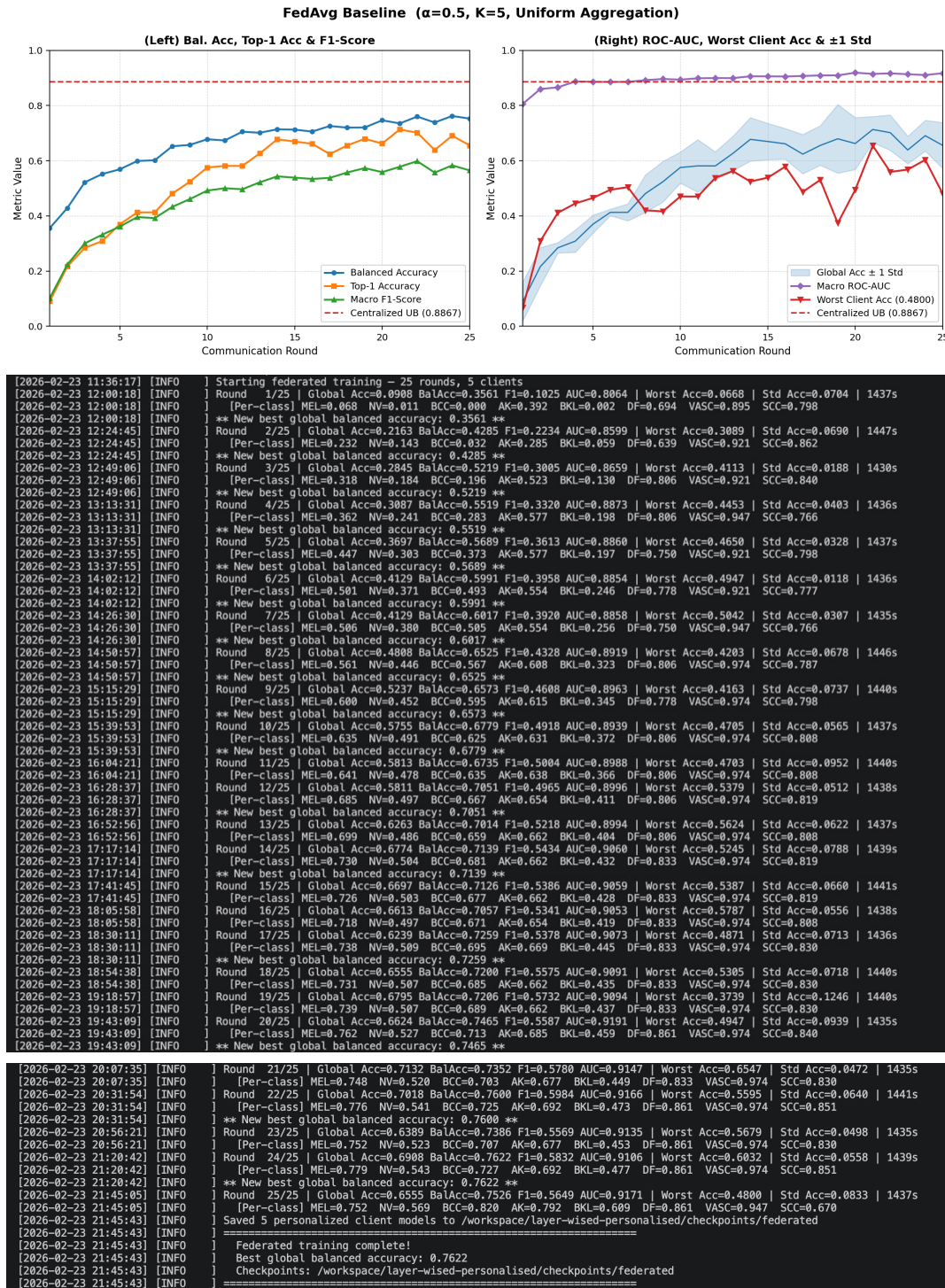


Figure 10. FedAvg non-IID setting ($\alpha=0.5$, $K=5$): top panel shows convergence metrics; middle and bottom panels show terminal outputs (Rounds 1–13 and 14–25). Final Balanced Accuracy: 0.7622, Worst Client Accuracy: 0.4800.

1 indicating that the benefit of drift correction grows as heterogeneity worsens. On the held-out test split the
 2 same comparison gives +21.53 points of worst-client accuracy and a 67.1% reduction in dispersion, so the
 3 effect is not specific to the validation partition. Averaging over the final five communication rounds rather
 4 than reading the final round alone gives +23.04 points and –56.7%, confirming these are not single-round
 5 artefacts.

The FedAvg baseline in Figure 11 deserves separate attention. Its convergence curve is unremarkable and its overall accuracy is the highest of the three, yet the per-class lines of its terminal output record $MEL=0.000$ at every one of the 25 rounds. The model reaches competitive aggregate accuracy by learning four classes well and never predicting the other four at all. Section 4.5.1 examines this behaviour in detail.

4.3.4 Interpreting the Global Accuracy Trade-off

FedSA-Drift achieves a lower global balanced accuracy than the uniform-aggregation baseline at the milder settings (0.8209 vs. 0.8314 at $\alpha=1.0$; 0.7066 vs. 0.7622 at $\alpha=0.5$). The more pronounced gap at $\alpha=0.5$ (5.6 percentage points, vs. 1.1 at $\alpha=1.0$) reflects a genuine cost of the fairness–utility trade-off that is well-recognized in the federated learning literature (Li et al., 2021; Mohri et al., 2019). We do not claim this cost is negligible; a global accuracy reduction of this magnitude in medical imaging warrants careful clinical evaluation before deployment.

The relevant comparison, however, is not global accuracy in isolation. Under FedAvg at $\alpha=0.5$, the worst-performing client reaches only 48.0% balanced accuracy—little better than chance for an eight-class problem. FedSA-Drift raises this floor to 57.1%. The minimax fairness objective (Mohri et al., 2019; Li et al., 2021), which optimizes the worst-case client rather than the population average, has been explicitly motivated in federated healthcare AI contexts where a model that fails disproportionately at one institution creates inequities in clinical outcomes (Darzi et al., 2024; Rieke et al., 2020). Improving the minimum performance guarantee at the cost of some global average is the stated design goal of FedSA-Drift, and the observed trade-off is consistent with that goal. A comprehensive clinical validation comparing deployment outcomes across institutions is an important direction for future work.

The direction of this trade-off is not fixed. At $\alpha=0.1$ it reverses within the decomposed family: FedSA-Drift attains *higher* global balanced accuracy than decomposition alone (0.5196 vs. 0.4477), so drift-aware weighting costs nothing in aggregate utility once heterogeneity is severe, while still raising the worst-client floor by 23.4 points. The utility cost seen at $\alpha \in \{0.5, 1.0\}$ therefore appears to be a feature of mild heterogeneity rather than an inherent price of the method.

A separate comparison applies once the decomposition itself is removed. The no-decomposition FedAvg baseline at $\alpha=0.1$ records the highest mean per-client accuracy of the three configurations (0.4702 on the held-out test split, against 0.4264 for FedSA-Drift), and marginally higher balanced accuracy (0.3778 vs. 0.3681). We do not present FedSA-Drift as superior on aggregate accuracy in this regime. As Section 4.5.1 shows, that baseline reaches its figure by abandoning four of the eight diagnostic classes outright, so the aggregate comparison and the clinical comparison point in opposite directions.

4.4 Contextual Reference Against Related Methods

Table 3 places FedSA-Drift alongside related published methods for contextual reference. **This is not a controlled head-to-head comparison.** The methods listed use different backbone architectures, training datasets, class distributions, federation setups, and evaluation protocols; direct numerical comparison is therefore not appropriate. The table is intended only to situate the design choices and claims of FedSA-Drift within the broader literature.

4.4.1 Comparison with Centralized Baselines

We do not benchmark our centralized figure against published ISIC 2019 results. Ours is measured on an internal validation split that shares lesions with the training partition, whereas challenge results

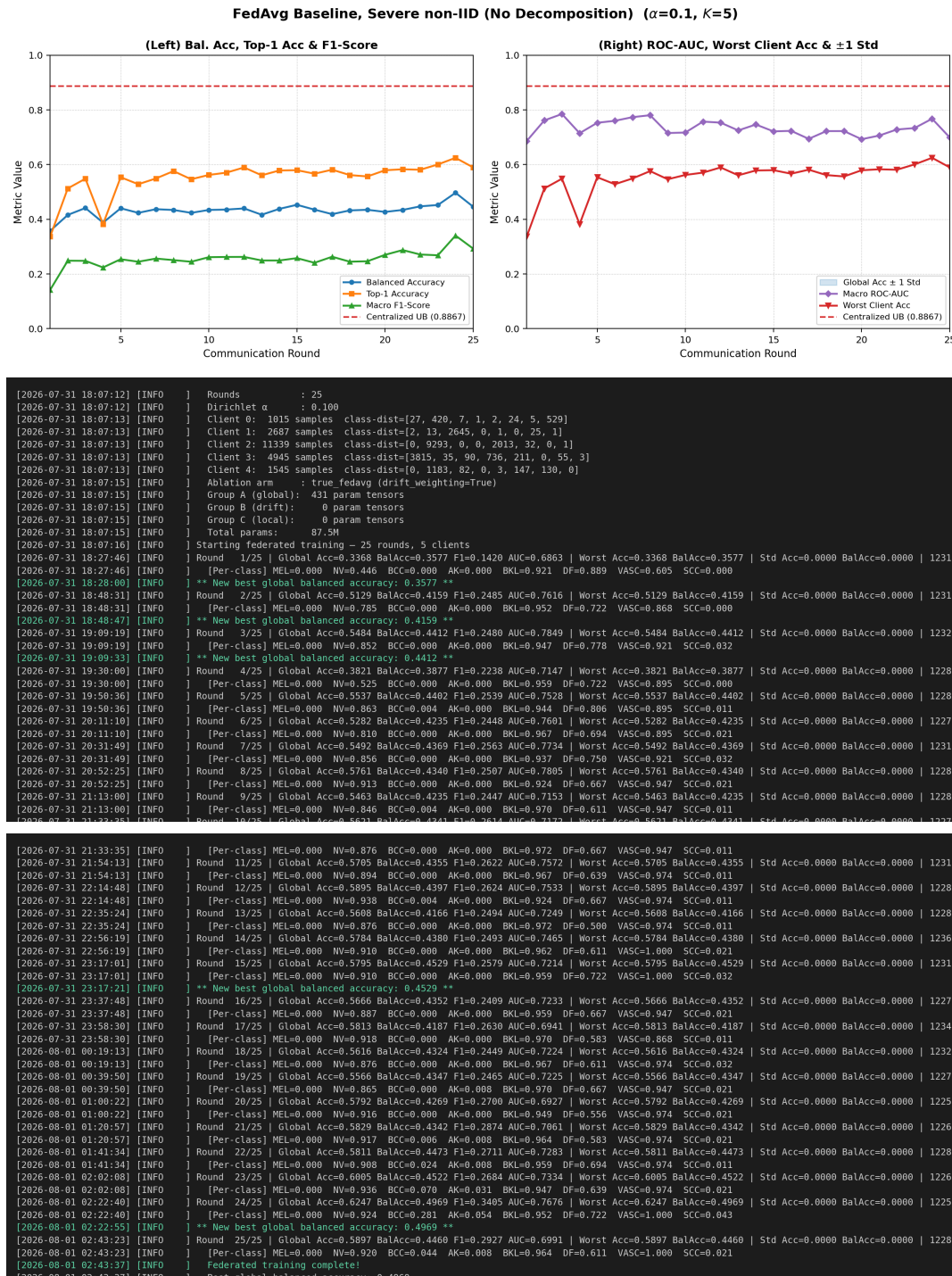


Figure 11. FedAvg baseline with the decomposition removed ($\alpha=0.1, K=5$): top panel shows convergence metrics; middle and bottom panels show terminal outputs. The per-class lines record MEL=0.000 at every one of the 25 rounds, with BCC, AK and SCC at or near zero: the run reaches the highest overall accuracy of the three configurations while never predicting melanoma. Inter-client standard deviation is identically zero because no client-specific head exists. The Ablation arm line reports drift_weighting=True because the command-line flag retains its default; with Group B empty (0 tensors, shown two lines below) the drift rule has no parameters to act on and is inert, so this configuration is standard FedAvg.

- 1 are computed on the official held-out test collection; the two are not comparable, and the comparison is
- 2 omitted rather than qualified.

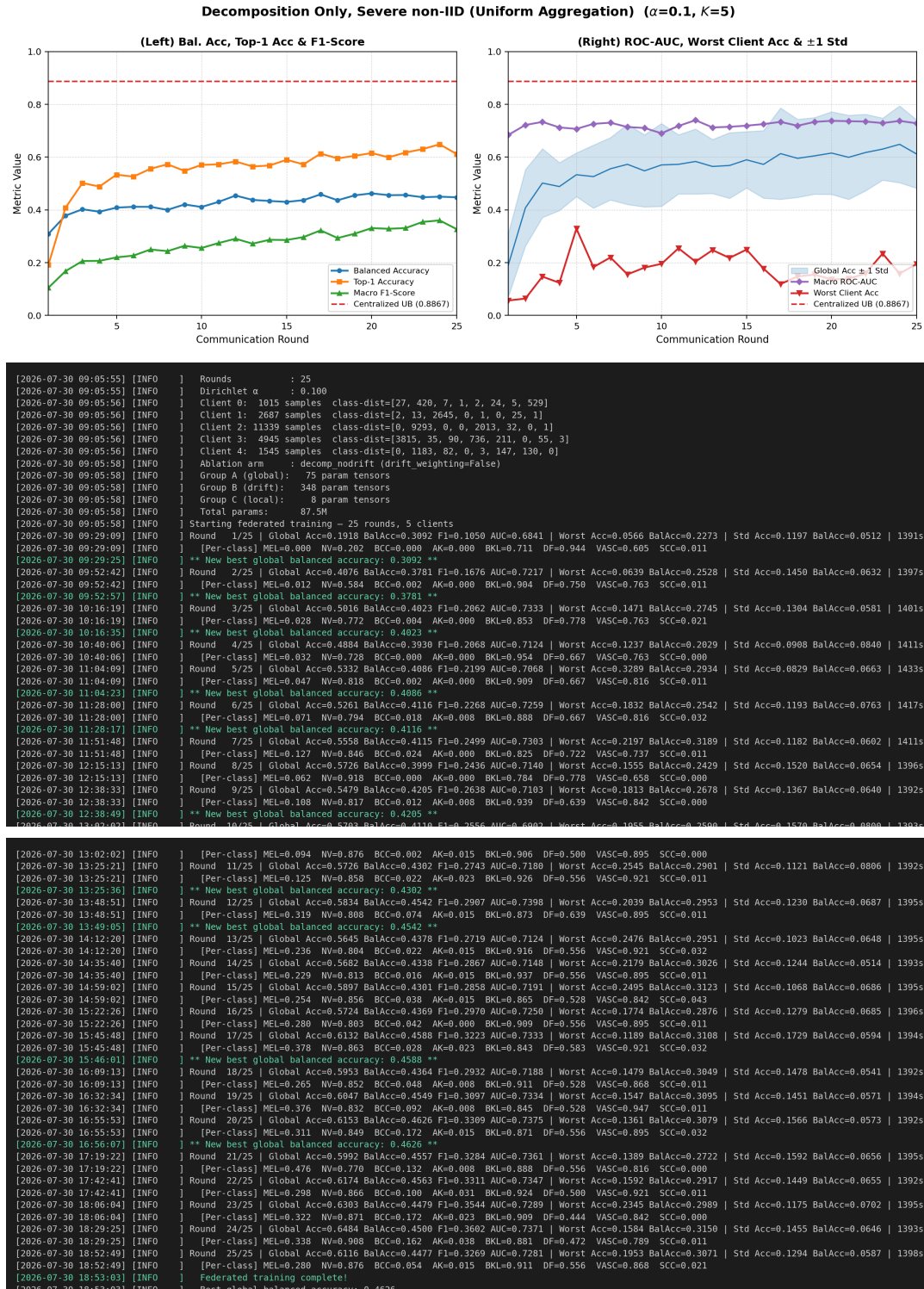


Figure 12. Decomposition-only setting ($\alpha=0.1$, $K=5$, drift weighting disabled): top panel shows convergence metrics; middle and bottom panels show terminal outputs. All eight classes retain non-zero recall, but the worst-client floor is low and inter-client dispersion is wide. Final Balanced Accuracy: 0.4477, Worst Client Accuracy: 0.1953, standard deviation 0.1294.

1 4.4.2 Comparison with Federated Vision Transformers

- 2 Under non-IID data, standard FedAvg with self-attention results in feature collapse due to misaligned
- 3 attention matrices.

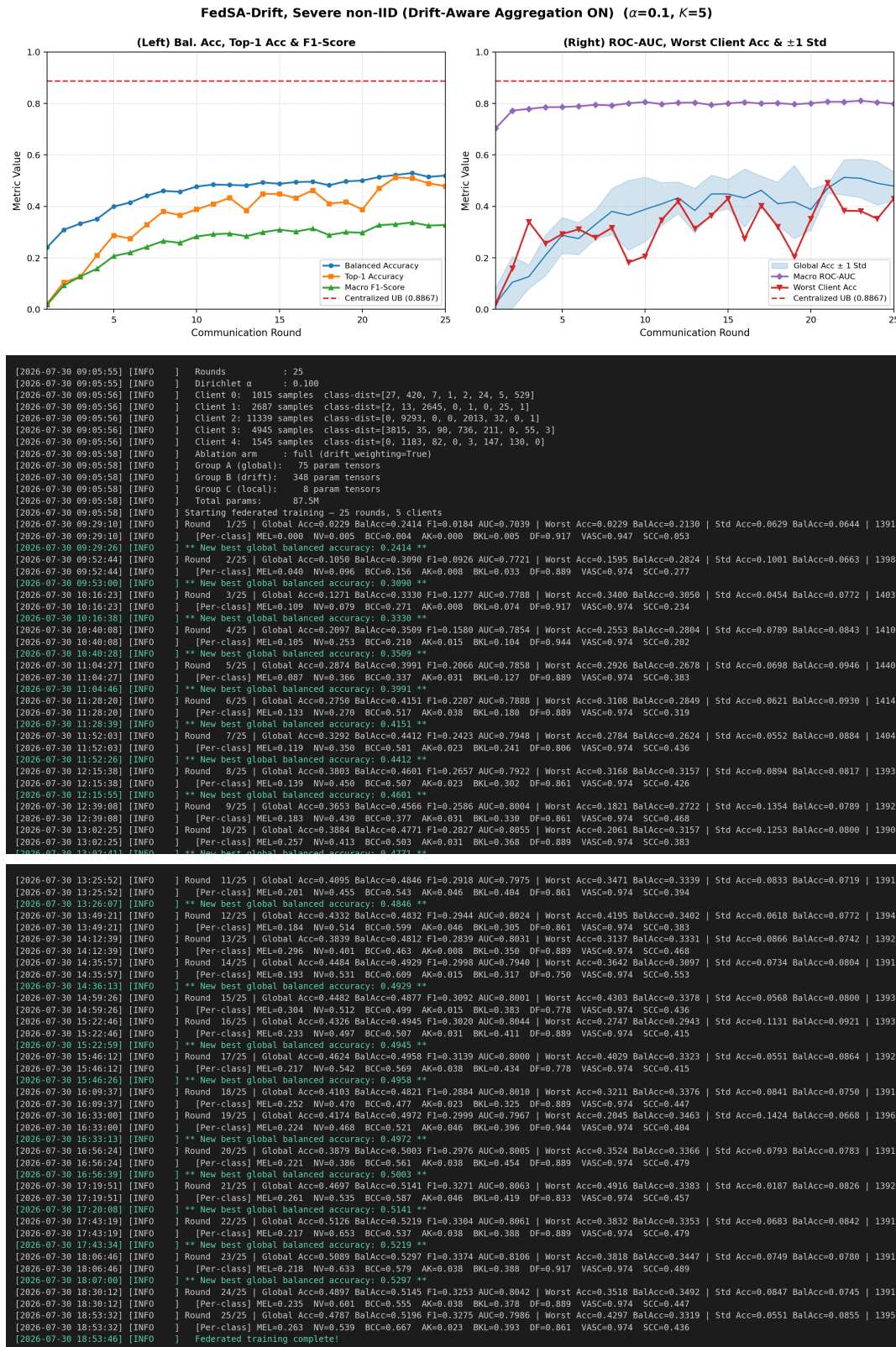


Figure 13. FedSA-Drift severe non-IID setting ($\alpha=0.1, K=5$): top panel shows convergence metrics; middle and bottom panels show terminal outputs. Final Balanced Accuracy: 0.5196, Worst Client Accuracy: 0.4297, inter-client standard deviation 0.0551. All eight classes retain non-zero recall throughout.

Table 3. Contextual Reference Comparison with Related Methods. **Note:** methods differ in dataset, backbone, class count, and experimental setup. Direct numerical comparison is inappropriate; this table contextualizes design choices only.

Method	Backbone	Multimodal	Dataset	Key Performance	Client Overhead
MedFusionNet (Naeem et al., 2025)	ConvNeXt + ViT-B16	No (images)	ISIC 2019 / HAM	Acc: 97.5–98.0% (Cent.)	N/A (Centralized)
FedMHA (Darzi et al., 2024)	Pre-trained ViT	No (images)	ISIC (LDA $\alpha \in [0.1, 0.9]$)	Acc: 67.09% ($\alpha=0.1$) to 83.99% ($\alpha=0.9$)	High (matrix distance)
FedAPM (Zhu et al., 2025)	CNN / MLP	Yes (partial pers.)	CIFAR Multimodal	Top across pFedMe/DITTO baselines	Very high (ADMM)
EFTViT (Wu et al., 2024)	Vision Transformer	No (images)	CIFAR ISIC (sim.)	GFLOPs reduced by up to $5.6\times$	Low (75% patch mask)
DAFL (Zhao et al., 2025)	ViT / CNN	No (images)	Medical (non-IID)	Adaptive focal reweighting	Medium (local focal tuning)
Async-FL-CNN (Yaqoob et al., 2023)	Standard CNN	No (images)	ISIC 2019	Prec: 96.7% / Spec: 96.3%	Medium (async updates)
FedSA-Drift (Ours)	SwinV2-Base	Yes (metadata MLP)	ISIC 2019 (LDA $\alpha \in [0.1, 1.0]$)	Bal. Acc: 88.67% (Cent., internal val.) / 82.09% (Fed $\alpha=1.0$, shared model)	None (server-side $O(w)$)

1 **FedMHA** (Darzi et al., 2024) penalizes Euclidean deviations in the attention matrices during local
2 backpropagation. FedMHA achieves accuracy ranging from 67.09% to 83.99% on the ISIC dataset across
3 $\alpha \in [0.1, 0.9]$, while incurring the overhead of aligning the attention matrices at every local training
4 iteration. FedSA-Drift instead aggregates Group A with FedAvg and down-weights deep-layer drift at the
5 server. We did not measure attention-matrix stability and make no claim about it; the comparison here is
6 one of mechanism and cost, not of effect. There is no modification to the client-side objective function.
7 FedSA-Drift records 82.09% balanced accuracy at $\alpha = 1.0$ against 83.99% for FedMHA at $\alpha = 0.9$,
8 but we caution against reading these as comparable. The figures differ in dataset split, backbone, client
9 count and heterogeneity level, and ours is measured on our internal validation split rather than a shared
10 benchmark. We draw no conclusion from the difference. FedSA-Drift also supports the use of multimodal
11 metadata, which FedMHA does not.

12 **EFTViT** (Wu et al., 2024) utilizes a masking methodology that removes 75% of input patches to lower
13 the number of FLOPs in processing an image. By doing so, it creates a break in the contiguous spatial
14 windows of SwinV2, which subsequently breaks cross-window connectivity. In contrast, FedSA-Drift
15 maintains full spatial representations and achieves drift mitigation purely at the server with zero client-side
16 cost.

17 4.4.3 Comparison with Partially Personalized Federated Models

18 To eliminate drift from using personalized metadata heads, FedAPM (Zhu et al., 2025) imposes an
19 augmented Lagrangian constraint using an ADMM algorithm. Through this approach, FedAPM achieves
20 strong performance on multimodal benchmarks; however, the number of inner-loop iterations required for
21 each ADMM sub-problem is generally prohibitive given the parameter count of SwinV2-Base.

In contrast to FedAPM, FedSA-Drift completely offloads the computational burden of regularization to the server. The way that FedSA-Drift computes the inverse-drift weight $\hat{\alpha}_{k,l} = \frac{1/(D_{k,l}+\epsilon)}{\sum_j 1/(D_{j,l}+\epsilon)}$ is done through a single pass over all received parameters. Furthermore, the ability to personalize over multimodal metrics is achieved without the use of ADMM or additional hyperparameters.

4.4.4 Comparison with Adaptive Loss Methods

DAFL (Zhao et al., 2025) has been implemented in the form of Dynamic Adaptive Focal Loss, allowing it to adjust to the class imbalance between the distributions of classes on behalf of the clients. As such, the clients must first estimate the local proportions of classes, and then they must tune both focal parameters γ and α for each local dataset. These two added complexities represent an additional cost burden for the client implementation that is unnecessary when running FedSA-Drift. Therefore, FedSA-Drift provides a natural structure for handling drift driven by class imbalance through decoupling of Group C at the local site and the implementation of drift-aware aggregation modifications.

4.4.5 Comparison with Asynchronous Federated Approaches

Yaqoob et al. (2023) reported 96.7% precision and 96.3% specificity using asynchronous CNN-based federated learning on the ISIC 2019 dataset; however, these metrics are misleading on a class-imbalanced dataset. The standard metric for the ISIC 2019 dataset is balanced accuracy, which is a more appropriate metric for this analysis (Gessert et al., 2020). In addition, the CNN architecture used by Yaqoob et al. is less capable of representing objects than the SwinV2-Base architecture and is not capable of fusing multimodal metadata.

4.5 Component Analysis

The experimental design enables a partial analysis of component contributions by comparing runs that differ only in whether Group B is aggregated with inverse-drift weighting (full FedSA-Drift) or with standard FedAvg (parameter decomposition only, no drift correction). In both settings the model architecture, Dirichlet partition, number of rounds, and all hyperparameters are held fixed; the sole variable is the Group B aggregation rule. These are the same four runs already reported in Table 2 (Uniform vs. Adaptive rows within each α , K pair), viewed here as a component-isolation comparison rather than a performance summary.

Across all three heterogeneity settings, enabling drift-aware aggregation consistently improves worst-client performance (+13.7 pp at $\alpha=1.0$; +9.1 pp at $\alpha=0.5$; +23.4 pp at $\alpha=0.1$) and reduces the inter-client standard deviation of accuracy (58%, 39% and 57.4% respectively, in single experimental trials) at the cost of a reduction in global balanced accuracy. This isolates the contribution of the drift-aware aggregation component. A full ablation isolating the contribution of the parameter decomposition itself—replacing the A/B/C grouping with a single undifferentiated aggregation—is discussed in the Limitations section.

4.5.1 Three-Way Component Ablation at $\alpha = 0.1$

Under severe heterogeneity we can separate both components directly. Three configurations were trained with an identical Dirichlet partition, architecture, seed, round count and hyperparameters, differing only in the aggregation scheme:

- **No decomposition:** every parameter tensor aggregated by standard size-weighted FedAvg; no client-specific head.

Table 4. Three-way component ablation at $\alpha=0.1$, $K=5$, evaluated per client on the held-out ISIC 2019 test split with trained classifiers throughout. Per-class values are recall, averaged over clients. Worst-client and dispersion figures are meaningful only for the two personalizing arms; the no-decomposition arm shares one model across clients, so its dispersion is zero by construction.

Configuration	Mean Acc	Mean BalAcc	Worst Acc	Std Acc	MEL	NV	BCC	AK	BKL	DF	VASC	SCC
No decomposition	0.4702	0.3778	—	—	0.000	0.867	0.028	0.003	0.914	0.615	0.596	0.000
Decomposition only	0.3111	0.3374	0.1699	0.0911	0.167	0.360	0.378	0.205	0.342	0.486	0.567	0.194
FedSA-Drift	0.4264	0.3681	0.3852	0.0300	0.228	0.584	0.535	0.167	0.253	0.484	0.496	0.196

1 • **Decomposition only:** the A/B/C split with client-specific Group C heads, Group B aggregated by
2 plain FedAvg.

3 • **FedSA-Drift:** as above, with drift-aware inverse-distance weighting on Group B.

4 Every configuration is evaluated per client using that client's own trained head—the single shared model
5 in the no-decomposition case—so the comparison is unaffected by the untrained-classifier issue discussed
6 in the Limitations section. Table 4 reports the held-out test split.

7 Reading the table as a ladder isolates each mechanism.

8 **The decomposition preserves class coverage.** Standard FedAvg attains the highest mean per-client
9 accuracy (0.4702) but does so by abandoning four of the eight classes: recall is exactly zero for melanoma
10 and SCC, and below 0.03 for AK and BCC. Introducing the decomposition with client-specific heads
11 restores all eight classes—melanoma recall rises from 0.000 to 0.167, SCC from 0.000 to 0.194, AK from
12 0.003 to 0.205, BCC from 0.028 to 0.378—at a cost of 15.9 percentage points of mean accuracy.

13 **Drift-aware weighting recovers utility and fairness.** Added on top of the decomposition it returns
14 11.5 points of mean accuracy (0.3111 to 0.4264), raises the worst-client floor by 21.5 points (0.1699 to
15 0.3852), reduces the inter-client standard deviation by 67% (0.0911 to 0.0300), and improves melanoma
16 recall further to 0.228.

17 The recovery is not uniform across classes. Melanoma, NV and BCC improve substantially (0.167
18 to 0.228, 0.360 to 0.584 and 0.378 to 0.535), whereas AK falls from 0.205 to 0.167 and BKL from
19 0.342 to 0.253. Down-weighting divergent clients concentrates the aggregate on the consensus direction,
20 which favours classes several clients hold in common and disadvantages those concentrated on the clients
21 being down-weighted; AK, for example, sits almost entirely on client 3. The net effect on mean per-client
22 accuracy is strongly positive, but we do not claim drift weighting improves every class. The same ordering
23 holds on the validation split, where drift weighting raises mean per-client accuracy from 0.3579 to 0.5018
24 (+14.39 pp); the corresponding worst-client and dispersion figures are given in Section 4.3.3.

25 Neither component is redundant, and neither is sufficient alone: the decomposition buys class coverage
26 at a utility cost that the drift weighting then largely repays.

27 4.5.2 Aggregate Metrics Conceal Class Abandonment

28 A consequence of Table 4 deserves emphasis. On balanced accuracy the no-decomposition baseline
29 (0.3778) and FedSA-Drift (0.3681) are nearly indistinguishable, and on overall accuracy the baseline is
30 ahead. Yet the baseline achieves this with four classes near 0.9 and four at approximately zero, whereas
31 FedSA-Drift spreads moderate recall across all eight. Balanced accuracy, being the unweighted mean of
32 per-class recalls, cannot separate these two profiles.

The clinical difference is not marginal. Melanoma is the most consequential class in this task, and under standard FedAvg its recall is zero for *every* client—including the client holding 3815 of the 3844 melanoma cases in the federation. Because aggregation is weighted by dataset size, the update is dominated by a client holding 53% of all samples and no melanoma whatsoever, and the minority-class signal is averaged away. Under FedSA-Drift the client holding the melanoma cases reaches 0.727 recall on that class on the test split (0.816 on the validation split), while clients that hold none rarely predict it.

A note on how the per-class figures in Table 4 are formed. Every client is evaluated on the same test images, including clients whose training partition contains none of a given class, and the tabulated recall is the mean over clients. For melanoma this averages 0.404, 0.011, 0.000, 0.727 and 0.000 to the 0.228 shown. The mean is the right quantity for asking what the federation as a whole recovers, but it is not the recall any single deployed model attains, and the two should not be conflated: an institution that holds melanoma cases obtains 0.727, whereas one that holds none obtains approximately zero. We regard the latter as correct behaviour for a personalized model rather than a failure, and report both the mean and the per-client values so that the distinction is visible. The comparison with the no-decomposition baseline is unaffected, since that baseline yields zero for *every* client, including the one holding the melanoma cases.

We therefore report per-class recall alongside aggregate metrics, and suggest that federated medical imaging evaluations should treat class coverage as a primary criterion rather than a diagnostic afterthought.

4.5.3 Interval Estimates for the Melanoma Result

Per-class recall is a binomial proportion— k correctly recalled out of the n test cases of that class—so it admits an exact-coverage confidence interval without repeated training runs. We report Wilson score intervals at the 95% level on the held-out test split, which contains $n = 1327$ melanoma cases. We emphasise that these intervals quantify *evaluation-set sampling* uncertainty, that is, how far a reported value could move under a different test sample of the same size. They do not quantify seed-to-seed variability across training runs, which is addressed separately in the Limitations section.

Table 5 gives the melanoma ladder for the client holding 3815 of the federation's 3844 melanoma cases, the institution for which this class matters most.

Table 5. Melanoma recall on the held-out test split ($n=1327$ melanoma cases) for the client holding 3815 of 3844 melanoma cases, with 95% Wilson score intervals. Under no decomposition all clients share one model, so this row applies to every client.

Configuration	MEL recall	95% CI
No decomposition	0.000	[0.000, 0.003]
Decomposition only	0.573	[0.546, 0.599]
FedSA-Drift	0.727	[0.703, 0.750]

The three intervals are mutually disjoint, so the ordering is not attributable to evaluation-sample noise. In particular, an observed recall of 0/1327 places the upper confidence bound at 0.003: the failure of standard FedAvg to detect melanoma under this partition is not a small-sample artefact. The same holds for SCC, where 0/165 gives an upper bound of 0.023. Overall test accuracy for the no-decomposition arm is 0.4702 with a 95% interval of [0.4578, 0.4826] on $n = 6191$ evaluated images.

4.6 Per-Class Diagnostic Behavior

In both centralized and near-IID scenarios, recall for the minority VASC class was very close to 100%. In the non-IID scenario, drift-aware aggregation provided more reliable maintenance of minority class recall compared to FedAvg. This behaviour becomes decisive at $\alpha=0.1$: as Section 4.5.1 shows, removing

the decomposition drives melanoma, SCC, AK and BCC recall to zero or near-zero on the held-out test split, whereas both decomposed configurations retain non-zero recall for all eight classes.

The primary source of diagnostic confusion across all settings was the MEL vs. NV distinction. In the no-drift-correction scenario at $\alpha=0.5$, NV recall dropped by a significant amount. This is due to the difficulty in learning consistent feature representations of a majority class under fragmented class distributions. FedSA-Drift with drift correction provided improvements to minority class recall, while also maintaining the institutional specificity of the metadata head.

4.7 Computational Overhead

The drift computation $D_{k,l} = \|\mathbf{w}_{k,l} - \bar{\mathbf{w}}_l\|_2$ and inverse-distance weighting are completed at the server in $O(|\mathbf{w}_{\text{shared}}|)$ linear operations; thus no computational overhead exists on the client side. In terms of per-round training overhead, the increase in round-trip time due to FedSA-Drift is insignificant. The measured per-round training times were:

- Centralized: ~ 1066 s per epoch
- FedAvg ($\alpha=1.0$, $K=3$): ~ 1297 s
- FedSA-Drift ($\alpha=1.0$, $K=3$): ~ 1301 s (+4 s, +0.31%)
- FedAvg ($\alpha=0.5$, $K=5$): ~ 1439 s
- FedSA-Drift ($\alpha=0.5$, $K=5$): ~ 1450 s (+11 s, +0.76%)
- Decomposition only ($\alpha=0.1$, $K=5$): ~ 1398 s
- FedSA-Drift ($\alpha=0.1$, $K=5$): ~ 1397 s (−1 s, −0.07%)
- FedAvg, no decomposition ($\alpha=0.1$, $K=5$): ~ 1229 s

At $\alpha=0.1$ the drift computation is not measurably more expensive than uniform averaging: the two decomposed arms differ by roughly one second per round, within run-to-run variation. The no-decomposition baseline is around 12% faster per round, which is not attributable to the aggregation rule but to the absence of per-client head state: that configuration keeps a single model, so it avoids materialising and evaluating K personalized models each round.

FedSA-Drift adds at most 11 seconds per round. In comparison, FedMHA (Darzi et al., 2024) adds matrix-alignment cost at each local training step, and FedAPM (Zhu et al., 2025) requires additional ADMM cycles per round. When compared to either FedMHA or FedAPM, FedSA-Drift provides equivalent fairness and drift mitigation without a significant penalty in training time.

4.7.1 Communication and Computational Budget

Wall-clock time alone is a weak measure of overhead, so we report the budget analytically. The model holds 87.51 M parameters, distributed across the three groups as follows: Group A 2.132 M (2.44%, 75 tensors), Group B 84.762 M (96.86%, 348 tensors) and Group C 0.613 M (0.70%, 8 tensors).

Communication. Groups A and B are transmitted; Group C never leaves the client. Each client therefore uploads 173.8 MB and receives 173.8 MB per round in FP16 (347.6 MB each way in FP32), against 175.0 MB for full-model exchange. Keeping Group C local saves 1.23 MB of upload and the same again in avoided broadcast, per client per round—a 0.70% reduction. We note plainly that this is a small saving: the communication argument for FedSA-Drift is not volume reduction but that personalization is obtained

without any additional transmission, since the drift weights are computed at the server from parameters it already holds.

Server computation. Forming the drift weights requires one ℓ_2 norm and one weighted sum over the Group B tensors, or approximately 0.175 GFLOPs per round. A single forward pass of the model at 384×384 costs 110.3 GFLOPs, and one communication round at $K=5$ involves roughly 7,124 TFLOPs of local training plus 2,515 TFLOPs of evaluation. The aggregation therefore accounts for on the order of 10^{-8} of the round's arithmetic, which is the precise sense in which the overhead is negligible; the wall-clock differences of -1 to $+11$ s reported above are dominated by scheduling noise rather than by the drift computation.

Client computation and memory. Clients perform standard local training and are unmodified by the method: no auxiliary model, control variate or proximal term is stored, in contrast with SCAFFOLD, which maintains per-client control variates of full model size, or FedProx, which requires the global parameters to be retained for the proximal penalty. Peak GPU memory during our runs was 33–35 GB at batch size 16 on 48 GB A40 devices, of which the drift computation contributes nothing on the client side.

4.7.2 Communication Cost

Each client transmits Groups A and B to the server per round; Group C (the metadata MLP and fusion head, comprising approximately 0.6M of the total 87.5M parameters) is never sent. The shared parameters (Groups A + B) total approximately 86.9M parameters. In FP16 precision, this corresponds to:

- **Upload per client per round:** $86.9 \times 10^6 \times 2 \text{ bytes} \approx 174 \text{ MB}$
- **Download per client per round:** $\approx 174 \text{ MB}$ (broadcast of updated global model)
- **Total server-side traffic per round ($K=5$):** $5 \times 2 \times 174 \text{ MB} \approx 1.74 \text{ GB}$

The communication cost of FedSA-Drift is identical to that of FedAvg applied to the same parameter groups; the drift-aware weighting is computed purely from the received parameters and incurs no additional transmission. Relative to transmitting all 87.5M parameters, keeping Group C local saves approximately 1.2 MB of upload per client per round, and the same again in avoided broadcast—a small but principled reduction that also preserves institutional metadata privacy.

4.8 Summary of Results

Figure 14 shows balanced accuracy convergence across all configurations. The findings below are ordered by the strength of the evidence supporting them: the first is measured on the held-out test collection, the next two are within-split differences that are unaffected by the validation contamination discussed in the Limitations, and the remainder are absolute validation figures that the contamination does inflate. The key findings are:

1. **Class coverage under severe skew:** At $\alpha=0.1$, removing the parameter decomposition drives melanoma and SCC recall to exactly zero on the held-out test split, and AK and BCC below 0.03, while overall accuracy remains the highest of the three configurations. Both decomposed configurations retain non-zero recall for all eight classes. Aggregate metrics, balanced accuracy included, do not reveal this failure.
2. **Competitive global performance:** On the internal validation split the shared model reaches 92.6% of the centralized balanced accuracy at $\alpha=1.0$ and 79.7% at $\alpha=0.5$, all evaluated on the same split. At $\alpha=0.1$ the shared model exceeds decomposition alone (0.5196 vs. 0.4477 balanced accuracy on

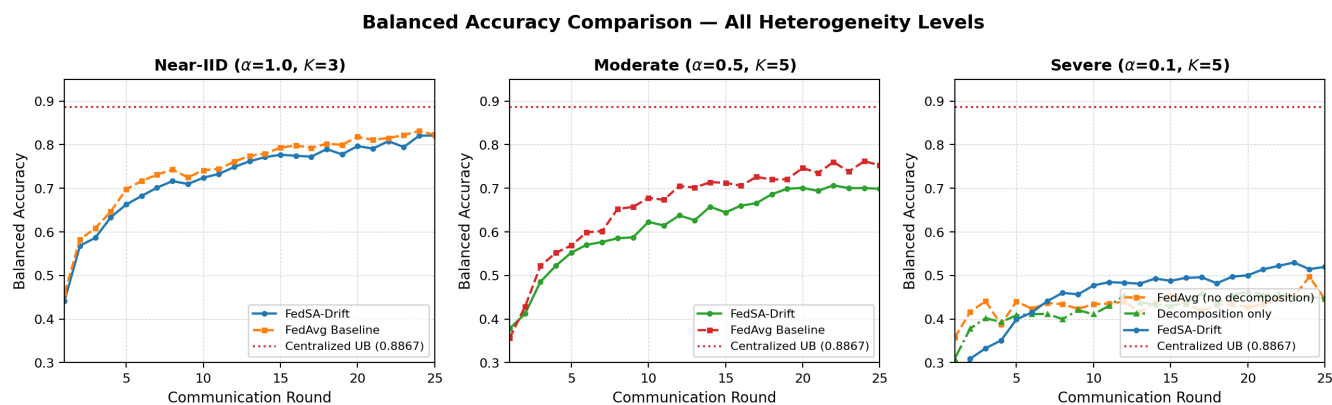


Figure 14. Balanced accuracy across all three heterogeneity levels: near-IID ($\alpha=1.0, K=3$), moderate ($\alpha=0.5, K=5$) and severe ($\alpha=0.1, K=5$). The severe panel additionally shows the no-decomposition baseline. The centralized upper bound is shown for reference. At $\alpha=0.1$ the no-decomposition baseline sits below FedSA-Drift on this validation curve (0.4460 against 0.5196 at round 25), yet on the test split their mean per-client balanced accuracies are within one point (0.3778 against 0.3681) while the baseline records zero melanoma recall throughout. Balanced accuracy alone therefore does not distinguish the two.

- 1 validation). On the distinct measure of mean per-client accuracy on the test split, however, the no-
- 2 decomposition baseline is ahead of FedSA-Drift (0.4702 vs. 0.4264); the two statements concern
- 3 different models on different splits and are not in conflict.
- 4 3. **Substantial fairness gains:** The worst-client accuracy is improved by +13.71 points at $\alpha=1.0$, +9.05
- 5 points at $\alpha=0.5$ and +23.44 points at $\alpha=0.1$, the gain growing as heterogeneity worsens. The $\alpha=0.1$
- 6 result is reproduced on a held-out test split (+21.53 points).
- 7 4. **Reduced divergence:** The inter-client standard deviation of accuracy decreases by 58% at $\alpha=1.0$,
- 8 39% at $\alpha=0.5$ and 57.4% at $\alpha=0.1$ (67.1% on the held-out test split), from a single experimental trial
- 9 per configuration.
- 10 5. **Negligible overhead:** The impact of server-side drift on round time is approximately 0.31%–0.76%
- 11 at $\alpha \in \{0.5, 1.0\}$ and is not measurable at $\alpha=0.1$, with no incremental cost burden to clients.
- 12 6. **Design simplicity:** FedSA-Drift achieves its drift mitigation entirely at the server, without modifying
- 13 local objectives or introducing regularisation hyperparameters, unlike FedMHA and FedAPM.
- 14 We make no claim of performance parity with those methods: as Table 3 states, they were not
- 15 re-implemented under our conditions and no controlled comparison was performed.

1 Thus, global accuracy alone is insufficient for evaluating federated medical models. FedSA-Drift offers
 2 a practical path toward stable and fair multi-institutional deployment.

5 REPRODUCIBILITY

3 All code, including the model definition, the partitioning procedure, the aggregation rules, every
 4 ablation arm and the evaluation scripts, is publicly available at [https://github.com/apurbaaaa/](https://github.com/apurbaaaa/layer-wised-personalised)
 5 `layer-wised-personalised`. Every reported configuration is reproducible from a single
 6 command; the exact invocations are in `run_reviewer_matrix.sh` and `run_tf_alpha01.sh`.

7 Randomness is controlled by one seed, exposed as `--seed` and recorded in every run log, which
 8 governs both the model initialisation and the Dirichlet draw. All results in this paper use seed 42. The
 9 validation split is regenerated deterministically by `StratifiedShuffleSplit(test_size=0.15,`
 10 `random_state=42)` over the ground-truth CSV in its published row order, so the exact train and
 11 validation indices—and hence the per-client shards—are recoverable without transferring index files. The
 12 per-client class counts printed at the start of each run (reproduced in Figures 11–13) allow a reader to
 13 confirm that a regenerated partition matches ours.

14 We note as a deficiency that a single seed was used throughout; this is discussed under Limitations.

6 LIMITATIONS

15 Several limitations of this work should be acknowledged explicitly.

16 **Experimental scale and two kinds of uncertainty.** All experiments use $K \in \{3, 5\}$ clients and $\alpha \in$
 17 $\{0.1, 0.5, 1.0\}$, with a single training run per configuration. Two distinct sources of uncertainty affect the
 18 reported figures, and we are able to quantify only one of them.

19 *Evaluation-set sampling* uncertainty—how far a number could move under a different test sample—
 20 is quantified directly. Per-class recall is a binomial proportion, so Wilson score intervals apply without
 21 repeated training; these are reported in Section 4.5.3 and are tight enough for the melanoma ladder to have
 22 mutually disjoint intervals. Where a claim depends on a fixed trained model evaluated on held-out data, it
 23 therefore carries an interval estimate.

24 *Training-run* uncertainty—seed-to-seed variability arising from a different Dirichlet partition draw and
 25 initialisation—is *not* quantified, because it requires repeating each configuration across multiple seeds
 26 and each run costs approximately 10 GPU-hours. Figures such as the 58% variance reduction and the
 27 +13.71 pp worst-client improvement remain single-trial point estimates in this respect, and we make no
 28 claim of statistical significance for them. Seeding is now an explicit and logged experimental parameter,
 29 so the reported runs are exactly reproducible, and we additionally verify that the $\alpha = 0.1$ effects are stable
 30 across the final five communication rounds rather than resting on a single round; but neither substitutes
 31 for a multi-seed study, which remains necessary future work. Validation at larger client counts ($K \geq 10$)
 32 likewise remains future work.

33 **What the shared global model contains.** Group C comprises the metadata MLP and the fusion head;
 34 as the backbone is instantiated with no classifier of its own, the fusion head *is* the classifier. Group C is
 35 never aggregated, so the classifier carried by the shared global model remains at its initialisation for the
 36 whole run—we verified that all Group C tensors are bit-identical to their initialisation after training, while
 37 Group A tensors have changed.

1 This does not make the shared model a random classifier, and its accuracy is not degenerate. Every
 2 client begins local training from that same initial head, and gradients reach the backbone through it, so the
 3 aggregated backbone is optimised to produce features that are discriminative *under that particular fixed*
 4 *projection*. The composite is a functioning model: at $\alpha=0.1$ it reaches 0.5196 balanced accuracy, which
 5 is in fact *higher* than the 0.4382 mean achieved by the personalized client models on the same split. The
 6 shared model and the personalized models are different objects—one uses the common initial head, the
 7 others their own adapted heads—and neither dominates the other.

8 Two consequences follow. Global-model accuracy is meaningful *within* the decomposed family, where
 9 every arm shares this construction. It is not directly comparable with a method that also aggregates its
 10 classifier, such as the no-decomposition baseline, whose shared model is a fully aggregated network. For
 11 cross-arm comparison we therefore use mean per-client accuracy, evaluating each client with the head it
 12 would actually deploy.

13 **Dispersion depends on the accuracy measure.** Our reported variance-reduction figures use the
 14 standard deviation of overall per-client accuracy. Under severe heterogeneity ($\alpha = 0.1$) the ordering
 15 reverses if balanced accuracy is used instead (0.0855 for FedSA-Drift versus 0.0587 without drift
 16 weighting). This does not indicate degradation at any client: every client's balanced accuracy improves
 17 under drift-aware aggregation, but by an amount that scales with how many classes that client actually
 18 holds—clients observing seven or eight of the eight classes gain approximately 9 pp, whereas a client
 19 observing four gains 3 pp. Balanced accuracy is bounded by classes a client has never seen, so the benefit
 20 is unevenly distributed and dispersion in that measure widens even as every client improves.

21 **Ablation scope.** The three-way ablation of Section 4.5.1 separates both components, but only at $\alpha = 0.1$
 22 and with a single seed. At $\alpha \in \{0.5, 1.0\}$ only the drift component is isolated, because the corresponding
 23 no-decomposition configurations were not run and the earlier decomposed runs did not retain per-client
 24 checkpoints from which mean per-client accuracy could be reconstructed. Whether the division of labour
 25 we observe—decomposition supplying class coverage, drift weighting supplying utility and fairness—
 26 persists at milder heterogeneity is therefore untested. We would expect the effect to shrink as α increases,
 27 since class abandonment under FedAvg is itself a consequence of severe label skew.

28 **Aggregate accuracy at severe heterogeneity.** We do not claim that FedSA-Drift improves overall or
 29 balanced accuracy at $\alpha = 0.1$. Standard FedAvg attains higher mean per-client accuracy (0.4702 versus
 30 0.4264) and marginally higher balanced accuracy (0.3778 versus 0.3681) on the held-out test split. The
 31 case for FedSA-Drift in this regime rests on class coverage, worst-client performance and inter-client
 32 dispersion, not on aggregate accuracy.

33 **Same-lesion contamination in the validation split.** The ISIC 2019 archive contains multiple
 34 photographs of the same lesion, and the metadata assigns a `lesion_id` to 23,247 of the 25,331 images,
 35 covering 11,847 distinct lesions. Our validation split is a stratified random split over images, not over
 36 lesions. Auditing it, 1,881 lesions have images on both sides, so 2,340 of the 3,800 validation images
 37 (61.6%) depict a lesion that also appears in the training partition. No image occurs in both splits, but
 38 sibling images of the same lesion do.

39 Validation-split figures are therefore optimistically biased, and this includes the centralized 0.8867 and
 40 every round-by-round result at $\alpha \in \{1.0, 0.5\}$. The magnitude is visible in the gap to the held-out test
 41 collection, where balanced accuracy falls to 0.368–0.378. We report this rather than leave it implicit
 42 because it bounds how the validation numbers should be read.

Two things are unaffected. Comparisons *between* configurations remain valid, because every arm is trained and evaluated on the identical split, so the contamination is common to all of them and cancels in the differences that carry our claims—worst-client accuracy, dispersion and the component ablation. And all test-split results, including the entire three-way ablation of Section 4.5.1 and the melanoma finding, are computed on the separate ISIC 2019 test collection and are not affected. A lesion-grouped split would give unbiased absolute validation figures and is the correct design for future work; it requires retraining every configuration and was not possible within the compute available for this revision.

Baseline set. Our comparisons are to FedAvg, to the decomposition without drift weighting, and to a variant with the decomposition removed. We did not evaluate against FedProx, SCAFFOLD, FedBN, FedRep, FedPer, FedBABU, FedNova or FedDyn. This is the most consequential gap in the evaluation: the three-way ablation of Section 4.5.1 establishes what each of *our* components contributes, but it cannot establish that this design is preferable to an established personalized method. In particular, a substantial part of our benefit may come simply from not sharing the classification head, which FedPer, FedRep and FedBABU also do. We state in Section 2.3 that we make no superiority claim over that literature, and a controlled comparison against at least FedProx, FedBN and FedRep is the first priority for further work.

Client scale. All experiments use $K \in \{3, 5\}$. Deployments of interest involve tens to hundreds of institutions, and several properties of the method are scale-sensitive in ways we have not measured: the inverse-distance weights are normalised over K , so the concentration bound of Section 3.8.4 tightens as K grows, and partial client participation—which we do not use, as `client_frac=1.0` throughout—would make the drift estimate noisier. Results at $K \in \{10, 20, 50\}$ are needed before any claim about deployment scale.

Aggregation design choices are unvalidated. The decomposition boundary (stages 0–1 versus 2–3), the Euclidean distance, and the inverse-distance functional form were fixed a priori and not compared against alternatives such as different split points, cosine similarity, or softmax, exponential and inverse-square weightings. Section 3.8.4 gives our reasoning for each, but reasoning is not evidence, and we cannot claim these choices are optimal.

Client count and heterogeneity are confounded. The three federated configurations are $(\alpha=1.0, K=3)$, $(\alpha=0.5, K=5)$ and $(\alpha=0.1, K=5)$. They do not form a factorial grid: any comparison between the near-IID setting and the other two changes both the concentration parameter and the number of clients simultaneously, so the two effects cannot be separated there. The $\alpha=0.5$ versus $\alpha=0.1$ comparison, and the three-way ablation of Section 4.5.1, both hold K fixed at 5 and are unaffected.

No calibration or uncertainty analysis. We report discrimination metrics only. For a triage setting the operating threshold, the calibration of predicted probabilities, and some expression of predictive uncertainty matter at least as much as recall at the default threshold, and a model that abandons a class silently is precisely the case where an uncertainty estimate would be informative. We report neither reliability diagrams nor expected calibration error, and all per-class figures are taken at the $\arg \max$ decision rule. This is a substantive gap for clinical deployment and not merely a presentational one.

Single dataset. All federated experiments use ISIC 2019. Generalization to other dermatology datasets or to different medical imaging modalities is not verified and remains an open question.

Simulation environment. All federated experiments are simulated rather than deployed: clients are trained sequentially within one process on NVIDIA A40 hardware (the $\alpha=0.1$ configurations were run concurrently across three such GPUs, one arm per device, which affects wall-clock time but not

1 results). Real-world deployment involves network latency, heterogeneous edge hardware, and bandwidth
2 constraints not captured in this simulation.

3 **Baseline conditions.** The published baselines in Table 3 are evaluated under different experimental
4 conditions. A fully controlled re-implementation of FedMHA, FedAPM, and EFTViT on ISIC 2019 under
5 identical conditions was not performed; the comparison is therefore contextual rather than definitive.

7 CONCLUSION AND FUTURE WORK

6 This paper has proposed a structure-aware federated learning framework called FedSA-Drift for
7 multimodal skin lesion classification. The framework was developed to specifically target stability and
8 fairness issues that arise from heterogeneous clinical data distributions. The architecture of FedSA-
9 Drift decomposes model parameters into early vision backbone layers, deep semantic Transformer
10 layers and client-specific multimodal heads, thus allowing for both selective aggregation and individual
11 personalization of the aggregated model within the Vision Transformer framework. To stabilize the deep
12 semantic representations at the server, this paper implements a drift-aware inverse-distance aggregation
13 mechanism during the aggregation process. This mechanism does not alter the local optimization
14 objectives or add additional hyperparameters for regularisation. The clearest evidence for the framework
15 comes from the held-out ISIC 2019 test collection under severe heterogeneity, where the choice of
16 aggregation scheme determines whether a diagnostic class survives training at all. Experimental results
17 further show that FedSA-Drift achieves comparable aggregate accuracy while substantially improving
18 robustness at the client level. Under moderately heterogeneous conditions ($\alpha = 0.5$, $K = 5$), the drift-
19 aware aggregation mechanism reduced inter-client performance variability by approximately 39% in a
20 single experimental trial, with minimal computational overhead.

21 Under severe heterogeneity ($\alpha = 0.1$, $K = 5$) a three-way ablation on a held-out test split separates the
22 two mechanisms. Standard FedAvg achieves the highest aggregate accuracy but abandons four of eight
23 diagnostic classes outright, recording zero melanoma recall for every client—including the institution
24 that holds almost all of the melanoma cases—because size-weighted aggregation is dominated by a client
25 holding none. The parameter decomposition restores all eight classes at a cost in mean accuracy, and drift-
26 aware weighting then recovers most of that cost while raising the worst-client floor by 21.5 points and
27 reducing dispersion by 67%. That the two configurations differ by only one point of balanced accuracy
28 despite these very different clinical profiles is itself instructive: aggregate metrics, balanced accuracy
29 included, cannot detect the complete loss of a diagnostic category. Future work will examine how FedSA-
30 Drift generalizes across datasets beyond ISIC 2019, particularly in settings where class distributions and
31 imaging protocols differ substantially between institutions. The broader implication is that federated
32 frameworks designed for medical imaging should be evaluated against client-level variance from the
33 outset, not retrofitted for fairness after the fact. As a result, it can be concluded that using only global
34 metrics to evaluate the performance of federated models for medical imaging is insufficient, and that
35 stability and fairness must also be considered as essential criteria for the clinical deployment of federated
36 models.

37 Future research may focus on investigating the use of adaptive layer-wise drift sensitivity for
38 increased control over how aggregation occurs within each layer of a Transformer architecture. In
39 addition, parameter-efficient methods of personalizing large models, such as adapter-based or low-rank
40 adaptation schemes, could reconcile the sharing of global knowledge from the model with institution-
41 specific specialization. There is also an opportunity to improve worst-case performance guarantees by

1 incorporating fairness-based optimization criteria and methods at the server level. In addition, using
2 structured quantization to achieve communication efficiency could potentially allow the implementation
3 of a large model across many resource-constrained edge devices. Cross-dataset generalization and domain
4 shift remain open questions for assessing the clinical robustness of the model. Finally, integrating drift-
5 based aggregation schemes with formal privacy techniques such as secure aggregation and differential
6 privacy could provide additional theoretical support for the use of federated Vision Transformer models
7 in medical imaging applications.

CONFLICT OF INTEREST STATEMENT

8 The authors declare that the research was conducted in the absence of any commercial or financial
9 relationships that could be construed as a potential conflict of interest.

AUTHOR CONTRIBUTIONS

10 A.K. conceived the study, implemented FedSA-Drift, ran the centralized and federated experiments, and
11 drafted the manuscript. R.R. supervised the research, provided guidance on the experimental design,
12 and reviewed and edited the manuscript. R.A.K.S. supervised the research and reviewed and edited the
13 manuscript. All authors approved the submitted version.

FUNDING

14 This work was supported by the School of Computer Science and Engineering, Vellore Institute of
15 Technology, Vellore, India. This research received no external funding; all GPU compute costs were
16 borne entirely by the authors.

ACKNOWLEDGMENTS

17 The authors thank the School of Computer Science and Engineering, Vellore Institute of Technology, for
18 institutional support.

DATA AVAILABILITY STATEMENT

19 The ISIC 2019 dataset analyzed in this study is publicly available from the International Skin
20 Imaging Collaboration (ISIC) Archive at <https://challenge.isic-archive.com/data/>.
21 All code required to reproduce the reported experiments—model definition, partitioning procedure,
22 aggregation rules, ablation arms and evaluation scripts—is publicly available at <https://github.com/apurbaaaa/layer-wised-personalised>.
23

REFERENCES

- 24 Aguirre, J. et al. (2024). A comparative analysis of cnn models and vision transformers for skin lesion
25 classification. *SOL-SBC (Sociedade Brasileira de Computação)*
26 Alipour, M. et al. (2024). Skin type diversity in skin lesion datasets: A review. *Current Dermatology*
27 *Reports*

- 1 Almalik, H. et al. (2022). Self-ensembling vision transformer (sevit) for robust medical image
2 classification. In *Proceedings of the Medical Image Computing and Computer Assisted Intervention*
3 *(MICCAI)*
- 4 Alshdaifat, E. et al. (2025). Triple-stream transformer architecture for multi-class skin cancer
5 classification in dermoscopic images. *Journal of Posthumanism*
- 6 Arnold, M., Singh, M., Laversanne, S., Vignat, D., Ferlay, J., and Soerjomataram, I. (2022). Global
7 burden of cutaneous melanoma in 2020 and projections to 2040. *JAMA Dermatology* 158, 495–503
- 8 Collins, L., Hassani, H., Mokhtari, A., and Shakkottai, S. (2021). Exploiting shared representations for
9 personalized federated learning. In *Proceedings of the International Conference on Machine Learning*
10 *(ICML)*
- 11 Darzi, A. et al. (2024). Tackling heterogeneity in medical federated learning via aligning vision
12 transformers. *arXiv preprint*
- 13 Gessert, N., Nielsen, M., Shaikh, M., Werner, R., and Schlaefer, A. (2020). Skin lesion classification
14 using ensembles of multi-resolution efficientnets with meta data. In *ISIC 2019 Challenge Proceedings*
- 15 Guan, Q. et al. (2024). Federated learning for medical image analysis: A survey. *Pattern Recognition*
- 16 Hasan, M. and Rifat, S. (2024). Hybrid ensemble of segmentation-assisted classification and gradient-
17 boosted decision trees for skin cancer detection. *arXiv preprint*
- 18 Hay, R. J., Johns, N. E., Williams, H. C., et al. (2014). The global burden of skin disease in 2010: An
19 analysis of the prevalence and impact of skin conditions. *Journal of Investigative Dermatology* 134,
20 1527–1534
- 21 Imam, M. et al. (2023). On enhancing the robustness of vision transformers: Defensive diffusion. *arXiv*
22 *preprint*
- 23 Karimireddy, S. P., Kale, S., Mohri, M., Reddi, S., Stich, S., and Suresh, A. T. (2020). Scaffold: Stochastic
24 controlled averaging for federated learning. In *Proceedings of the International Conference on Machine*
25 *Learning (ICML)*
- 26 Law, S. (2023). Consumer data privacy: Eu's gdpr vs. china's pipl. *Bloomberg Law*
- 27 Li, T., Hu, S., Beirami, A., and Smith, V. (2021). Ditto: Fair and robust federated learning through
28 personalization. In *Proceedings of the International Conference on Machine Learning (ICML)*
- 29 Li, T., Sahu, A. K., Zaheer, M., Sanjabi, M., Talwalkar, A., and Smith, V. (2020). Federated optimization
30 in heterogeneous networks. In *Proceedings of Machine Learning and Systems (MLSys)*
- 31 Li, Y. et al. (2025). Hyperfusionnet: Vision transformer-based early melanoma detection with precise
32 lesion segmentation. *Scientific Reports*
- 33 McMahan, B., Moore, E., Ramage, D., Hampson, S., and y Arcas, B. A. (2017). Communication-efficient
34 learning of deep networks from decentralized data. In *Proceedings of the 20th International Conference*
35 *on Artificial Intelligence and Statistics (AISTATS)*. 1273–1282
- 36 Mohri, M., Sivek, G., and Suresh, A. T. (2019). Agnostic federated learning. In *Proceedings of the 36th*
37 *International Conference on Machine Learning (ICML)*. 4615–4625
- 38 Naeem, M. et al. (2025). Automated skin cancer detection using medfusionnet with attention-based fusion
39 of convnext and vision transformer. *Scientific Reports*
- 40 Narimani, M. et al. (2024). Fedrp: A communication-efficient approach for differentially private federated
41 learning using random projection. *arXiv preprint*
- 42 Nunnari, F., Pappalardo, G., and Lombardo, C. (2020). A study on the fusion of pixels and patient
43 metadata in cnn-based classification of skin lesion images. In *Proceedings of the International Joint*
44 *Conference on Neural Networks (IJCNN)*

- 1 Paxton, R. et al. (2024). Skewness-guided pruning of multimodal swin transformers for federated skin
2 lesion classification on edge devices. *arXiv preprint*
- 3 Rieke, N., Hancox, J., Li, W., et al. (2020). The future of digital health with federated learning. *NPJ*
4 *Digital Medicine* 3
- 5 Subramanian, S. et al. (2025). Skin cancer classification and detection using federated learning. In
6 *Proceedings of the 3rd International Conference on Futuristic Technology (INCOFT)*
- 7 Voigt, P. and Von dem Bussche, A. (2017). *The EU General Data Protection Regulation (GDPR): A*
8 *Practical Guide* (Cham, Switzerland: Springer)
- 9 Wegley, A. et al. (2026). Dermatology skin lesion image analysis. *Scholars' Mine Research Repository*
- 10 Wu, J., Li, X., Zhang, Y., and Huang, K. (2024). Eftvit: Efficient federated training of vision transformers
11 with masked images on resource-constrained clients. *arXiv preprint*
- 12 Yao, L. et al. (2024). Task-agnostic federated learning with imbalanced data. *arXiv preprint*
- 13 Yaqoob, T. et al. (2023). Federated machine learning for skin lesion diagnosis: An asynchronous and
14 weighted approach. *Diagnostics*
- 15 Zhao, Y., Chen, H., Wang, L., and Liu, J. (2025). Federated vision transformer with adaptive focal loss
16 for medical image classification. *arXiv preprint*
- 17 Zhao, Y., Li, M., Lai, L., Suda, N., Civin, D., and Chandra, V. (2018). Federated learning with non-iid
18 data. *arXiv preprint arXiv:1806.00582*
- 19 Zhu, X. et al. (2025). Fedapm: Federated learning via admm with partial model personalization. In
20 *Proceedings of the 31st ACM SIGKDD Conference on Knowledge Discovery and Data Mining (KDD*
21 *'25)*
- 22 Zoravar, S. et al. (2024). Domain adaptive skin lesion classification via conformal ensemble of vision
23 transformers. *arXiv preprint*
- 24 Zuo, Q. et al. (2024). Fedvit: Federated continual learning of vision transformer at edge. *Future*
25 *Generation Computer Systems*